

Party and Accountability in Congress*

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Abstract

Ansolahehere and Kuriwaki (2022) show that people are much better than chance at identifying the votes that their representatives cast on specific bills in Congress. We hypothesize that people are much more capable of holding parties accountable than individual representatives. We show that people are worse than chance at identifying the roll call votes their representatives cast when those representatives vote against the majority of their party. However, using an original data collection, we show that people are able to surmise the majority positions of the two major parties on roll call votes. Only in rare cases do voters' perceptions contain non-negligible information about their representatives' roll call votes, besides that which is accounted for by political party. These findings are consistent with a partisan theory of policy accountability.

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1 Introduction

Reading the literature on representation in Congress, one could be forgiven for thinking that research papers fall into one of two camps. One camp, rooted in studies of political behavior, views democracy as a largely illusory enterprise. The central argument for this perspective is that ordinary voters lack the information or attentiveness to meaningfully monitor legislators. The other camp, rooted to a greater degree in studies of political institutions, believes in strong electoral accountability. The central empirical pillar of this perspective is that politicians’ stances on policy are correlated with the views of their constituents.

At the crux of this debate is whether constituents can hold legislators accountable for their actual law-making. Until recently, direct evidence on this point was scarce. However, a set of landmark studies of congressional accountability have substantially advanced knowledge in this area. Using surveys linked to representatives’ actual votes, these works demonstrate that citizens are not entirely in the dark about legislative behavior. Ansolabehere and Jones (2010) first showed that constituents’ approval of their member of Congress was related to roll call votes on salient issues, arguing that voters do respond to policy congruence. More comprehensively, Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) find that a substantial fraction of Americans accurately perceive how their own House members voted on high profile bills — and reward or punish incumbents accordingly at election time. Strikingly, respondents in their study could often identify whether their representative voted for or against the respondent’s preferred positions on particular bills. Together, these seminal studies provide the most convincing evidence to date that many voters possess enough knowledge to hold legislators accountable on policy issues.

However, these findings cut against a behavioral literature that takes a dim view of people’s capabilities. There is a long tradition of work arguing that voters reward political parties for their stances and accomplishments. But it is a remarkable claim to say that voters have even indirect knowledge of specific roll call votes by their particular member of Congress. Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022, p. 125) claim to “uncover a picture of the electorate that, although not hyperinformed and hyperrational, is one in which constituents are sufficiently attentive that the majority can and does hold their representatives accountable for the decisions that they make on important pieces of legislation.” They further clarify (p. 137) that “The evidence mustered here shows that voters can punish representatives with whom they disagree on legislative decisions, even if the representative is a copartisan.” And they say (p. 124) that “perceived issue agreement on key legislation does translate into electoral support, and the effects are substantial and operate independent of party.”

In this paper, we build on the contributions made by Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) by reanalyzing their survey evidence and introducing two original surveys covering roll call votes in more recent Congresses,

studying a total of 65 important roll call votes. We show that when representatives vote with their party, constituents identify their representative's votes correctly at impressively high rates. However, in these cases there are two observationally equivalent possibilities. One is that representative votes cause constituent perceptions, either directly or indirectly. Another is that constituents infer legislator votes using a heuristic that is invariant to individual legislator's vote, with the most obvious being party. If constituents are guessing legislator positions on the basis of party, then there is no causal connection between how an individual legislator votes and their constituents' perceptions.

These two explanations are not observationally equivalent when legislators vote against their respective political parties, so we focus on this case. We show that constituent perceptions falter when representatives break from their party line. Across data sets, respondents fare worse than chance at recognizing roll call positions that go against their representative's party. In these cases, the effects of roll call behavior on voter evaluations of their representative appear to be almost entirely driven by voters assuming their representative voted with their party, not voters knowing their representative's vote on the issue.

In other words, the data are consistent with a state of the world where constituents reward or punish their representatives for perceived policy stands that are largely inferred from party affiliation. Voter evaluations depend very much on the collective stances of the parties in Congress but very little on the roll call votes of their own member, casting doubt on the possibility of strong member-level accountability.

A partisan theory of accountability helps reconcile the competing perspectives on voter competence and representation. Yes, most citizens do not track roll call votes, and most simply assume their representative toes the party line. Yet this does not imply a complete absence of accountability. On the contrary, our findings suggest that accountability in Congress is real but party-centric. Voters don't know everything, but they know something. They leverage partisan cues to form reasonably accurate impressions of their legislators' stances on major issues, and on that basis, they often (but not always) reward legislators whose parties act in line with their preferences and punish those whose parties do not. In the contemporary Congress, party serves as the crucial informational shortcut that makes a measure of democratic accountability feasible amid widespread ignorance of the lawmaking process. We would venture to guess that this perspective better reflects what the average political scientist believes about accountability than either the extremely skeptical or extremely optimistic view about congressional accountability.

2 Party Cues and Accountability

In a typical year, each chamber of Congress holds about 500 votes. These votes often differ substantially across chambers. Constituents have three different elected representatives in Congress alone, not to mention

one president, two state legislators, a governor, and numerous other state and municipal elected officeholders. How is it possible that people hold representatives accountable for the policy decisions they make?

Limits on political knowledge in the mass public are well documented (Delli Carpini and Keeter, 1996). The median American cannot name her own member of the House of Representatives, let alone recall the details of bills on the House floor. The informational hurdle is particularly steep in the lower chamber, where short two-year terms, periodic redistricting, and frequent member turnover make it harder for voters to stay informed about their representative’s actions. If democratic accountability required voters to possess detailed knowledge of roll call votes, it would surely fail in practice.

Recognizing these informational limitations, scholars have long emphasized the role of cognitive shortcuts in enabling meaningful representation. Chief among these is the party cue. By voting along party lines, legislators simplify the task for citizens: a constituent who knows the party of her representative can infer a great deal about that representative’s general ideology and likely positions without tracking every bill (Downs, 1957). Research on heuristics confirms that even low-information voters can reach “reasonably correct” decisions by relying on partisan cues and other signals (Lupia and McCubbins, 1998; Lau and Redlawsk, 1997). Contemporary polarization has increased the accuracy of the partisan heuristic because Democrats are reliably to the left of Republicans across issue areas (Fowler and Hall, 2016; Poole and Rosenthal, 2011). Work on congressional organization has argued that parties cultivate a “brand name” precisely in order to simplify the task of conveying a platform to voters (Aldrich, 1995; Cox and McCubbins, 2005).

What remains contested is whether these ubiquitous partisan signals crowd out or coexist with heuristics that depend on how individual legislators actually voted on roll calls. An influential qualitative literature argues that legislators are attentive to their reelection constituencies when making roll call voting decisions (see e.g. Arnold, 1990; Kingdon, 1989; Mayhew, 1974). Recent empirical work follows in this tradition. Ansolabehere and Jones (2010) claim to show (p. 596) that “actual roll-call votes directly affect constituents’ beliefs, and those roll-call votes, in turn, have substantial effects on approval ratings and electoral behavior.” Elsewhere they acknowledge (p. 584) that this information about roll call votes can be indirect: “Individuals’ beliefs reflect a mix of hard facts learned from the media, campaigns, and other sources and inferences drawn from other facts, especially party labels.” However they argue that individual reelection prospects are causally related to their roll call voting behavior. Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022, p. 124) double down on this perspective, saying (p. 124) “Do people have, to use Walter Lippmann’s expression, a picture in their heads about how their representatives voted, and is that picture close to reality? The answer is largely yes.”

This argument contrasts with evidence from Dancey and Sheagley (2013), who inspire our approach in this paper. They show that across seven issues, when representatives vote against their party, more

politically interested people are more likely to be wrong about the roll call votes of their representatives than less politically interested people. The explanation for this phenomenon is simple. More politically interested people are better at guessing the positions of the parties. If voters know the party of their representative, but not their individual stances on issues, then more politically interested people will be right more often by merit of their ability to better guess the party position. But when representatives vote against their party, being right about the party means being wrong about the representative.

Although not directly emphasized by Dancey and Sheagley (2013), a core implication of their findings is that voters at all levels of political interest are better than chance at identifying the roll call votes of their representatives when those representatives vote with their party, and worse than chance when those representatives vote against their party. If representatives always voted along party lines, then voters would always be better than chance at identifying their votes. This is perhaps impressive. At the same time, whatever voters know about the roll call voting of their individual representatives, it is not enough for them to be as good as a fair coin at holding those representatives accountable individually.

In a similar vein, Donnelly (2019) finds that when a senator votes against their party on one of seven high profile roll call votes “the vast majority of out-partisans nonetheless persist in believing that the senator voted with her party anyhow.” But in contrast to this perspective, Jenke, Johnston, and Madson (2025) argue that “a meaningful portion of citizens go beyond party cues to distinguish the ideological extremity of individual candidates for office.” In an incentivized experiment, they show that respondents’ guesses about their legislators’ interest group ratings and NOMINATE scores are significantly related to actual scores, within-party, in 9 out of 20 possible cases (10 scores across 2 waves) for Democrats and 3 out of 20 possible cases for Republicans. Fortunato and Stevenson (2019) argue that people are less likely to rely on party heuristics when their legislator votes against the party more often, and estimate that people with more disloyal legislators are less likely to update their beliefs about their legislator when the party changes its position. However Dancey and Sheagley (2016) find that when senators vote against their party “constituents’ ability to correctly identify their senators’ votes drops precipitously.” Until Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022), all of this work relied on a single-digit number of roll call votes, with the exception of Jenke, Johnston, and Madson (2025), who use interest group scores.

Other evidence is consistent with a partisan theory of accountability. For instance, papers on dyadic responsiveness often show a pattern of responsiveness that is primarily cross-party. This is best exemplified in papers that show scatterplots of the relationship between legislative roll call voting and constituency opinion in recent Congresses. These scatterplots exhibit an instantly recognizable “two clouds” pattern, where district preferences are evenly distributed along the horizontal axis but legislator preferences are clumped at two points on the vertical axis, because the overall relationship between district opinion and

roll call voting is strong, but the relationship within each party is weak (Clinton, 2006; Tausanovitch and Warshaw, 2013).

Likewise, work on the electoral benefits of legislator moderation finds muted results. Large moves towards district median voters appear to produce only very small increases in reelection probabilities (Caughey and Warshaw, 2019; Bonica, Rhee, and Studen, 2025; Tausanovitch and Warshaw, 2018). Although a few papers have found larger effects (Canes-Wrone, Brady, and Cogan, 2002; Hall, 2015), most of the data for these papers come from the 20th century, when the two parties were much less polarized. Bonica and Cox (2018), Handan-Nader, Myers, and Hall (2026) and Utych (2020) provide evidence that rewards to moderation have declined in the 21st century. Ansolabehere, Snyder Jr, and Stewart III (2001) finds district-level influence on candidate positioning declining as early as the 1980s. However Jesse (2009) finds large effects of the positioning of presidential candidates. This fact pattern agrees with a partisan theory of accountability: members of Congress are largely judged on the actions of their parties, whereas party-defining figures such as presidential candidates may be judged to a greater degree on their policy stances.

People *do* act on their views on policy, and even prioritize them over party labels when they are able. Orr and Huber (2020) find that when people are asked to evaluate other people, policy stances matter more than party affiliation. However we theorize that for the most part what people know is the policy stances of the parties, not the policy stances of individual candidates for offices other than the presidency. For instance, a recent paper shows that primary voters are poorly informed about candidate policy positions relative to general election voters, and blames the lack of party cues (Calao et al., 2025).

In our view, the preponderance of evidence in the literature supports a partisan theory of accountability. In light of this, what legs do Ansolabehere and Jones (2010) and Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) have to stand on for the claim that individual representative roll call votes matter? Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) uses substantially more data than any other work, including Dancey and Sheagley (2013), Donnelly (2019) and Dancey and Sheagley (2016). More importantly, Ansolabehere and Jones (2010) and Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) employ an innovative instrumental variables strategy. They use actual roll call votes cast as an instrument for people’s perceptions of those roll call votes. At both stages they control for people’s perceptions of the party of their representative. In our results section, we show that their evidence is ultimately consistent with a partisan theory of accountability, and does not provide evidence for a theory in which people hold individual legislators accountable for roll call votes.

3 Data

Data for this paper come from two sources. The first is the dataset used in Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) which includes over 50,000 responses to surveys included in the Cooperative Election Studies (CES) from 2006 to 2018. Respondents were asked about their support for specific bills voted on in Congress, as well as their perceptions of the votes cast by their representatives in Congress on those bills. The data cover 36 floor votes drawn from Congressional Quarterly or the Washington Post Key Vote from 2006 to 2018 (see the Appendix in Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) for more details on this dataset). Respondents were also asked about their approval of members of Congress, and what political party their representatives are affiliated with.

The second source of data is a pair of original surveys. Survey 1 was conducted between January 13, 2025 and January 23, 2025 on a nationally representative sample of 1,050 respondents. Subjects were recruited by Verasight. Survey 2 was conducted between September 22, 2025 and October 9, 2025 on a quota sample of 1,000 respondents recruited by Cint Theorem. These surveys were approved under exempt review by the UCLA Institutional Review Board for minimal risk to human subjects, IRB-24-5764. Subjects were given information about the studies and their rights as research subjects before participating. Respondents in both surveys first provided basic demographic information, partisanship as well as their vote choice and participation in the 2024 election. Then respondents were asked to identify the party of each of their representatives (one congressperson and two senators) as well as whether they approve or disapprove of the way they are handling their job.

After this, respondents were presented with a brief description of an important bill that had been before Congress in the past few sessions. Each survey included 15 bills. One of these bills on the first survey never received a floor vote (the American Innovation and Choice Online Act). Nine of the bills on the first survey had also been asked about on the CES in previous years, while none of the bills on the second survey had previously been asked on the CES. For these nine bills we used identical wording to that used on the CES. For the rest of the bills, we wrote descriptions that convey the central topic of each bill. For example, The Laken Riley Act is described as, “A bill to make larceny, burglary, and theft deportable offenses.” Appendix G contains details on question wording and the roll call votes that we asked about.

As in Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) respondents were asked whether they support each piece of legislation as well as how they think their House representative and two Senators¹ voted. In addition, we asked respondents if they think most Democrats and Republicans in Congress support each piece of legislation. By including these questions on the perceptions of each party’s stance, we are able to analyze

¹In Survey 2 we ask only about the House of Representatives.

how often voters predict their legislator votes with their party, as well as whether approval of legislators is more strongly associated with actual legislator behavior, or perceived party behavior. We placed questions about perceptions of representative positions and party positions on separate survey pages in order to avoid priming respondents toward using the party heuristic. Respondents always answered the questions about their representatives before they answered questions about the parties. For each question respondents could answer “For,” “Against,” “Not Sure,” or “Not Applicable.” If respondents answered, “Not Sure” on any questions, they were asked to provide a guess later in the survey.

Survey 1 included roll call votes that took place between 2019 and 2023 (116th - 118th Congresses). Most of these votes were heavily party line: Democratic support was either below 3% or above 95%. Republican support was similar: either below 7% or above 95% with two instances of support of about 35%. This set of roll call votes allows us to assess voter perceptions on issues that are highly polarized in Congress, but because we are also interested in voter perceptions of less polarizing issues, in Survey 2 we asked about votes that were not as party line. Almost no roll calls in the 116th-119th Congresses split both parties, so we selected roll call votes that divided at least one party. In particular, nine of the bills on Survey 2 divided Republicans and four of the bills divided Democrats. One was party line (Reduce Medicaid Spending), and one divided both parties (Force the sale of TikTok).

4 Results

4.1 Constituent Knowledge of Roll Call Votes is Mostly Accounted for by Party

Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) (henceforth AK) argue that voters are more likely than not to correctly perceive the roll call votes of their legislators, and that these perceptions do not depend on correct perceptions of legislator party. To demonstrate this, they measure what proportion of the time respondents *actually* agree with their legislator on the roll call votes in the data (Issue Agreement), whether respondents *actually* share the party of their legislator (Party Agreement), and more speculatively, whether respondents *actually* share the “ideology” of their legislator². Then they model the respondent’s *perception* of what proportion of the time they agree with their representative on roll calls as a function of these three actual factors. They also model the respondent’s *perception* of whether they share their representative’s party on the basis of these three factors. If respondents are making roll call judgments on the basis of information about roll call votes, then *Actual Issue Agreement* should be the best predictor of *Perceived Issue Agreement*.

In the first two columns of Table 1 we replicate their findings using their data. *Actual Issue Agreement* is

²AK measure what they call “Ideological Agreement” as “the proximity between the representative’s DW-NOMINATE score and the voter’s ideological self-placement” (p. 128) and use it to attempt to control for broad knowledge of the ideological stances of their legislators.

indeed the best predictor of *Perceived Issue Agreement*, narrowly edging out *Actual Ideological Agreement* and coming out far ahead of *Actual Party Agreement*. The second column shows that *Actual Party Agreement* is by far the best predictor of *Perceived Party Agreement*. This appears consistent with the theory that respondents are getting information about legislative roll call voting that is not just based on a party heuristic, and that respondent perceptions might differ if their legislators had voted differently.

The problem is that AK’s results only hold under circumstances where knowing the party position is sufficient to know the representative’s position. In the third and fourth columns of Table 1 we replicate AK’s analysis using only the roll calls where representatives voted with the majority of their party. These results are very similar to the results of the first two columns, and account for 89.6% of the votes. In the fifth and sixth columns, we replicate AK’s analysis using only the roll calls where representatives voted against the majority of their party. Now the results go away, and *Actual Issue Agreement* is negatively related to *Perceived Issue Agreement*. It appears that roll call voting is only related to perceptions when legislators vote with their party.

Table 1: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) Table 3

	Original		Legislator voted with their party		Legislator voted against their party	
	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement
Actual Issue Agreement	0.34 (0.01)	0.05 (0.00)	0.38 (0.01)	0.05 (0.00)	-0.14 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)
Actual Party Agreement	0.10 (0.00)	0.63 (0.01)	0.08 (0.00)	0.63 (0.01)	0.05 (0.01)	0.58 (0.01)
Actual Ideological Agreement	0.30 (0.01)	0.14 (0.01)	0.27 (0.01)	0.14 (0.01)	0.23 (0.03)	0.15 (0.02)
Observations	46,574	46,585	46,020	46,132	10,024	10,520
Average of outcome	0.09	0.12	0.10	0.12	0.03	0.06
Std. dev. of outcome	0.59	0.71	0.65	0.72	0.75	0.71
R-squared	0.36	0.60	0.36	0.61	0.12	0.54
F-statistic for weak instruments	2,116	6,389	2,369	6,336	55	1,220
Number of MCs	848	848	846	846	547	572
Number of Rollcalls	36	36	36	36	35	35

Note: Each column shows the coefficients from an OLS regression, with standard errors in parentheses. Controls, representative fixed effects, and year fixed effects not shown. Standard errors are clustered by representative.

To better understand what these results mean, consider that *Agreement* involves two quantities: the position of the respondent and the position of the representative. When we subset to roll calls where the representative voted with their party, we eliminate all the within-party variation. By construction, a Democratic representative always votes with every other Democrat. Suppose that voters know their own position, and the party of their representative. Let’s assume that most voters can guess the position of a

majority of representatives of their representative’s party (soon to be demonstrated in Table 2). Further suppose that people simply attribute the party’s position to the individual representative. In this case that heuristic will be correct, and people who correctly guess the position of the party will correctly guess the position of the representative. Since we assumed that people guess correctly on average, *Actual Issue Agreement* will be associated with *Perceived Issue Agreement*.

When we subset to roll calls where the representative voted against their party, the heuristic fails. People guess the position of the party correctly on average, and hence they guess the position of the legislator incorrectly on average. The relationship between *Actual Issue Agreement* and *Perceived Issue Agreement* becomes negative.

Note that controlling for *Actual Party Agreement* does nothing to account for this effect. This is not a matter of whether the respondent’s party matches his legislator, but whether he can guess his legislator’s position based on her party. The party heuristic can account for the differing directions of these results. Knowledge of legislator roll call positions cannot.

Our argument hinges on the 10.4% of cases where legislators vote against their party, because the two competing theories (partisan and individual) are observationally equivalent the rest of the time. It’s possible to object that we are right about these 10.4% of cases but wrong about the other 89.6%. We cannot respond to this objection in the abstract—that’s what observational equivalence means. But we can respond to particular reasons why the two sets of cases might differ. If someone claims we are wrong because partisan votes are more likely to have feature X than defections, we can look at the defections that have feature X and test this objection.

This is a question of generalizability. For instance, we show in Appendix A.1 that relatively moderate legislators account for more than their share of the defecting votes, which stands to reason because closeness to the other party is what makes a moderate. Perhaps people know the positions of their individual legislator when they are in uncompetitive districts that produce mostly party-line legislators. In these districts people don’t have to make comparisons across parties, so perhaps people track their own legislator more closely to make better within-party distinctions. This turns out not to be the case. In Appendix A.2 we show that our results hold equally well when we subset to defecting votes by non-moderate members.

The United States Congress has the rare feature among national legislatures that party discipline is weak. Every year there are many different votes with many different vote margins, and even though some legislators are much more likely to vote with their party than others, almost no legislator racks up a perfect record of voting with their party. This allows a rich set of tests of generalizability. We show that our results hold as well on votes where extreme legislators defect from their party as they do on votes where moderate legislators defect from their party (Appendix A.4). We also show that our results hold just as well for

“maverick” legislators who vote against their party a lot and “go-along” legislators who rarely vote against their party (Appendix A.3).

For people to use the party heuristic, they must know or be able to correctly guess the party of their representative. In our survey we asked whether people had ever heard of their representatives in Congress, and if so, whether they could identify their party. Table 2 shows how well people do this. Overall they can guess the party of their representatives in 61% of cases, and 83% among those who provide a guess. In Survey 2, we followed up with respondents who initially declined to provide a guess. Only 43% of these respondents guessed correctly. Nonetheless, this brings the percentage of respondents who were able to guess their legislators’ party to 66%.

Table 2: Voters’ Predictions of their Representatives’ Party Affiliations

Position	Not sure	Never heard of	Correctly Identified Party	Incorrectly Identified Party
Representative	17%	14%	57%	12%
Junior Senator	14%	11%	63%	12%
Senior Senator	14%	9%	63%	13%

Note: Percentages are calculated as a fraction of all respondents. Rows present the response patterns for each type of representative.

Secondly people must know or be able to correctly guess the position of their representative’s party on the issues. In our original data collection, we asked people what they believed the stance of a majority of members of each party in Congress was on each roll call. Table 3 shows the results by the type of votes. “Party Line Votes” are votes where upwards of 95% of Democrats in Congress voted together and upwards of 95% of Republicans in Congress voted together. “Democrat Consensus Votes” are votes where upwards of 95% of Democrats in Congress voted together, but fewer than 95% of Republicans in Congress voted together. “Republican Consensus Votes” are votes where fewer than 95% of Democrats in Congress voted together, but upwards of 95% of Republicans in Congress voted together. We exclude the one vote in our data where both parties had less than 95% unity³.

On party-line votes, voters correctly identify the positions of the majority of the party 68% of the time. This ranges from 63% for Republican voters identifying the positions of Republicans in Congress to 71% for Democratic voters identifying the positions of Democrats in Congress.

Table D.19 in the Appendix has data for the complete set of bills. There are only six cases out of 72 where a majority of a group of voters was incorrect about a party’s position on a party-line vote. Only 45% of Republicans correctly identified the unified Republican vote against universal gun background checks,

³On the vote to force the sale of TikTok to an American company, 90% of Republicans and 73% of Democrats supported it.

and only 27% correctly identified the party’s stance against allowing Medicare to negotiate drug costs. Only 47% of Independents and 45% of Democrats correctly identified the Democratic party’s stance against repealing an executive order mandating electric vehicle adoption. Finally, only 49% of Independents and 46% of Democrats correctly identified the Democratic party’s opposition to a bill that established a right for parents to review their child’s school curriculum.

On votes where one party is split, respondents are no less likely to guess the position of the party that is not split than they were for party line votes. However they are substantially less likely to correctly guess the position of the party that is split. This is not surprising in light of the fact that the signal the party is sending about the issues in question is less clear. Republicans are worse than chance at guessing their party’s position when it is split, and Democrats and Independents are only barely better than chance at guessing the positions of Democrats when they are split.

There are two cases (out of a possible 48) of these split votes when a majority of voters misidentified the positions of the party that was not split. Only 42% of Democrats and 43% of Independents correctly identified the Democrats’ position on requiring financial institutions to report data regarding lesbian, gay, bisexual, transgender, or queer-owned businesses. However majorities are wrong about party positions in 27% of cases where the party in question is split.

Table 3: Voters’ Knowledge of Each Party’s Position

Type of Vote	Republican Position			Democratic Position		
	Voter Party			Voter Party		
	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.
Both Party Line	63%	66%	70%	67%	67%	71%
Democrats Party Line	47%	54%	60%	64%	66%	73%
Republicans Party Line	76%	71%	73%	55%	54%	54%

Note: The percentages in each column represent the fraction of all respondents who correctly identified the position of each party across each type of vote. We define “Party Line” as votes where at least 95% of the members of a party voted with the majority of their party. The first three columns show the correct percentage for the Republican position on each vote, and the second three columns show the correct percentage for the Democratic position on each vote. Percentages of correct perceptions are further broken down by respondent self-reported partisanship (Republican in columns 1 and 4, Independent / Other in 2 and 5, Democrat in 3 and 6). The party’s position on each issue is defined as the side that the majority of representatives of that party voted for.

Overall, respondents were able to guess their legislator’s party 66% of the time, and in these cases they were able to guess that party’s position 69% of the time. Knowledge of legislator party and knowledge of

party positions will translate into good guesses of the position of representatives by definition, because in at least a majority of cases representatives will have agreed with the position of their party.

When legislators vote with their party, partisan and individual theories of accountability are observationally equivalent, because both predict that people should correctly identify the position of their representative on average. However when representatives vote against their party, a partisan theory of accountability predicts that people will be incorrect on average, and an individual theory predicts that they will be correct. For each roll call in the AK data⁴, Figure 1 graphs the percent of people who are correct about the position of their representative when she voted against her party (in grey) and the percentage of people who are correct about the position of their representative when she voted with her party (in black), conditional on giving an answer. The percentage of missing and not sure responses is shown in parentheses on the right side of the graph.

Figure 1 shows that respondents can guess the position of their legislator when those legislators vote with the majority of their party. In every case but two, respondents are better than chance at guessing the positions of their representative, and usually much better. On average they are correct 78% of the time. However, the story is very different when representatives vote against their party. In 23 out of 34 cases respondents are worse than chance at guessing the position of their legislator when they vote against their party, and usually much worse. When legislators vote against their party their constituents are only correct on average 40% of the time.

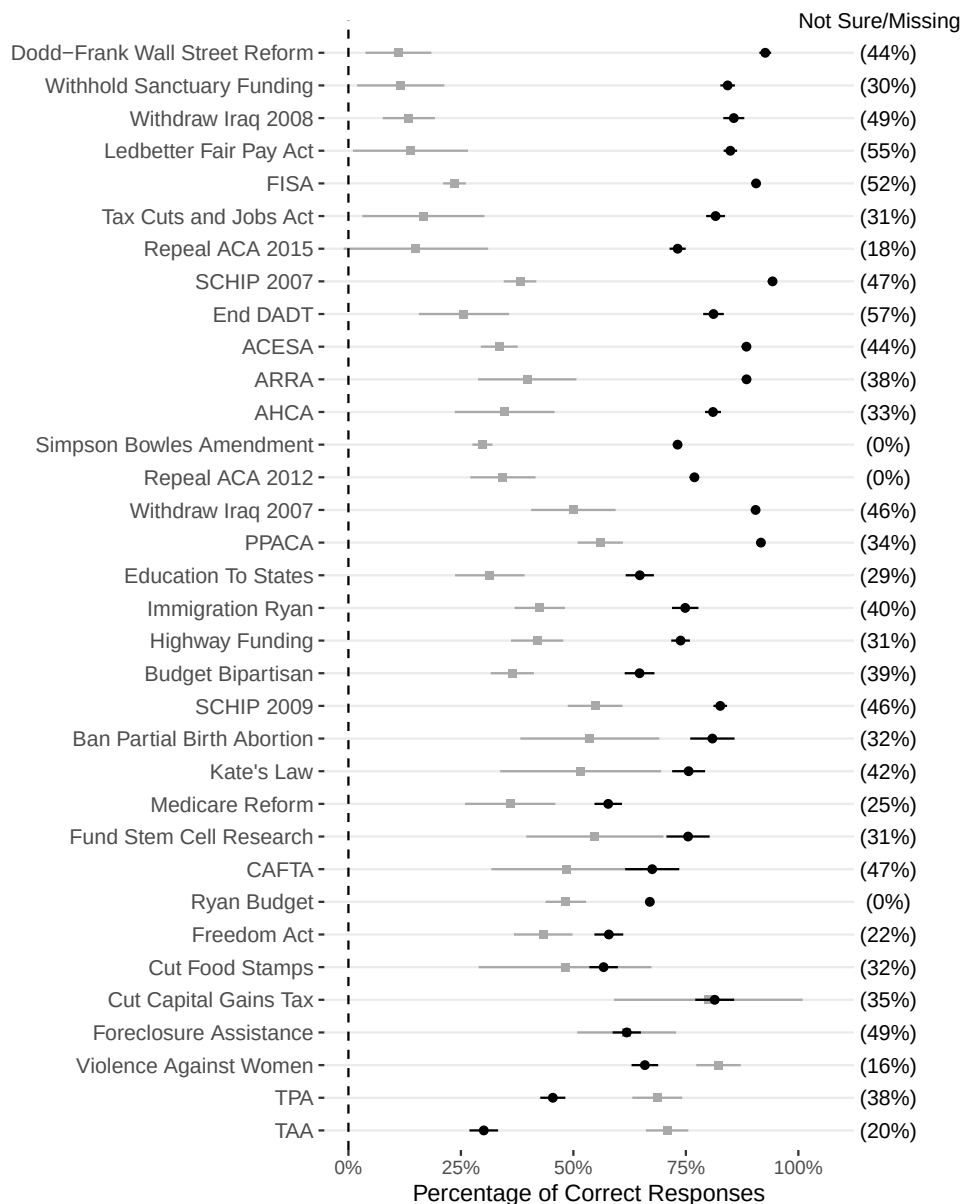
Of the eleven cases where people are as good as or better than chance at guessing the positions of representatives who voted against their party, there are four cases where people appear to be simply misinformed about the position of the party. In these cases the story is flipped (à la Dancey and Sheagley, 2013), and people are very bad at identifying the votes of representatives who vote *with* their party. For instance, when Republicans break with their party and support the Violence Against Women Act, 82% of people correctly identify their votes. But for Republicans who joined the majority of their party in opposing it, only 27% get their votes correct. A similar story applies to the votes on Foreclosure Assistance, TAA, and TPA. These were tremendously popular bills, and people wrongly assumed that Republicans voted for them. Appendix Table C.16 shows the breakdown of correct identification of votes by party.

In two further cases where people guessed the positions of representatives who voted against their party (Kate’s Law and SCHIP 2009), the % correct regardless of vote is just above 50% for one party, an outcome not far from pure chance. This is another instance where people appear not to know where one of the parties stand on these issues. In four further cases (Withdraw Iraq 2007, Ban Partial Birth Abortion, Fund Stem

⁴Save for “Ban 20wk Abortion” because no representatives defected from their party and “CHOICE” because only one representative defected from their party, and only one of their constituents responded to the relevant question. This leaves 34 roll calls.

Cell Research, and the PPACA) the % correct are 50%, 54%, 55%, and 56%, respectively, as good as chance or better but far below what we expect when the representative votes *with* their party.

Figure 1: Percent of Correct Perceptions by whether a Representative votes With or Against their Party



Note: The horizontal axis plots the percent of correct perceptions on each roll call vote listed on the left vertical axis. The percentage of correct perceptions is only among respondents who provided a response other than “Not Sure.” Black circles represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted with their party’s majority, and grey squares represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted against their party’s majority. The percentage of respondents who answered “Not Sure” or did not provide a prediction for each condition is reported in the parentheses on the right vertical axis. Lines represent 95% confidence intervals. Data underlying this Figure come from Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022).

This leaves only one case where people identified the votes of representatives voting against their party

at rates greater than 60% and there is no obvious misunderstanding of the party’s position. All but two Republican representatives voted in favor of Cut Capital Gains Tax, and neither had constituents in the survey, but for Democrats 74% of respondents were correct when the representative voted against it and 80% were correct when the representative voted for it. The bill in question is the Tax Increase Prevention and Reconciliation Act of 2005. Only 15 Democratic House members out of 197 voted for the bill, and this represents just 15 people in the sample whose representatives voted against their party.

It’s clear by now that most of the time people only ever “know” the position of their representative when she votes with her party. We can also show that respondents do not have a firm idea of *what* their representative voted on. In our surveys we asked respondents about the votes of their representative even if that particular representative did not vote on that particular roll call. We offered “Not Sure” and “Not Applicable” options for these cases. Appendix Table D.21 shows that people are no more likely to say “Not Sure” or “Not Applicable” when asked about a House member’s vote on a roll call that occurred only in the Senate, or a Senator’s vote on a roll call that occurred only in the House. Appendix Table D.22 shows that people are only very slightly more likely to say “Not Sure” when their representative was not yet elected at the time of a roll call vote.

In our data we are able to see how often assessments of party positions agreed with assessments of legislator positions. Appendix Table D.20 shows that respondents believe that legislators vote with their party about 78% of the time on a typical roll call. In other words, people are usually making the same judgments about legislators that they are about parties.

4.2 Public Opinion About Roll Call Votes Is Informative Only in Rare Cases

We have shown that most respondents are able to guess the party of their legislator and that in most cases they are able to guess the majority position of that party on important roll call votes taken in Congress. As a result, when members vote with their party, respondents guess their roll call votes at relatively high rates. But when members vote against their party, respondents are usually worse than chance at guessing their positions. Whatever direct or indirect knowledge of roll call voting exists, it is not enough to make the average voter as good as a fair coin at guessing the position of their legislator when they vote against their party.

However, this does not necessarily mean that people’s guesses are *completely* uninformative. It may be the case that a small subset of respondents has better knowledge of roll call votes, or that respondents in general do better at guessing legislator positions than they would if they were relying *only* on the party heuristic.

We propose a simple measure of how much information about legislator policy stances the public possesses above and beyond the information contained in the party heuristic. Our measure answers the following question: If we remove the portion of legislator positions that is explained by their party, how much of the remainder is explained by respondent perceptions? Of course both effects may be driven in part by unmeasured confounders, so our analysis can be thought of as comparing the effects of correlates of party with everything else.

In order to answer this question, we estimate the following regression model on the AK data:

$$vote_{ij} = \beta_{1j} \cdot perception_{ijk} Republican_i + \beta_{2j} \cdot perception_{ijk} Democrat_i + \beta_{3j} Republican_i + \beta_{4j} Democrat_i + \epsilon_{ijk} \quad (1)$$

where $vote_{ij}$ is representative i 's yea (1) or nay (0) vote on roll call j , $perception_{ijk}$ is respondent k 's perception of representative i 's yea (1) or nay (0) vote on issue j , $Republican_i$ is an indicator for whether representative i is a Republican (1) or not (0), and $Democrat_i$ is an indicator for whether representative i is a Democrat (1) or not (0). Observations are at the level of respondent-legislator-votes. β_{3j} estimates the baseline likelihood of a yea vote by a Republican on issue j and β_{4j} estimates the baseline likelihood of a yea vote by a Democrat on issue j . β_{1j} captures the amount by which we should update this baseline probability of a yea for a Republican when the respondent says that the legislator voted yea on j , and β_{2j} estimates the same quantity for Democrats.

$\hat{\beta}_{1j}$ and $\hat{\beta}_{2j}$ are our measures of how much information respondent perceptions contain about votes on j once party is accounted for. When a party votes unanimously, then these coefficients will be 0, with all variation explained by party. In every other case, β_{1j} and β_{2j} will vary with the degree of knowledge held by the voters. Let's say that voters have perfect knowledge of how Republicans voted on vote z . Then $\hat{\beta}_{3z}$ will be equal to 0, and $\hat{\beta}_{1z}$ will be equal to 1, indicating that 100% of Republicans vote for z when their constituents say so, and 0% vote for z when their constituents say they vote nay.

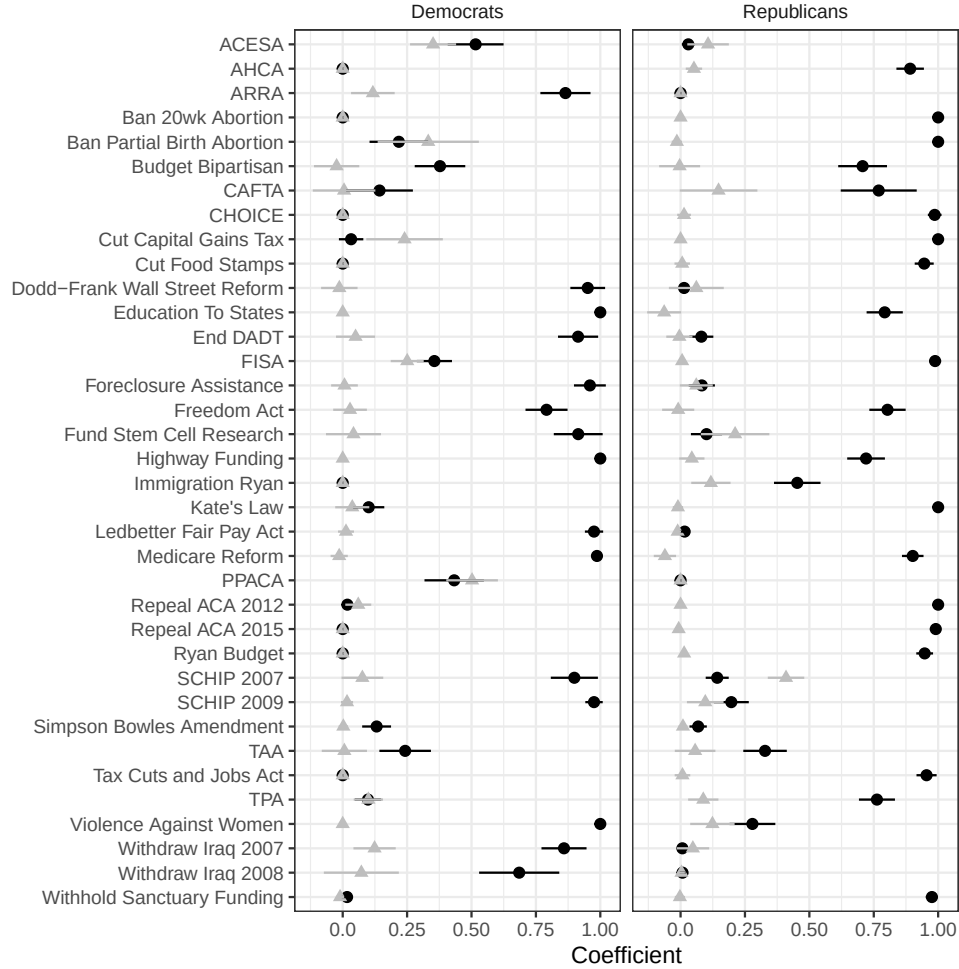
We should note that these measures of information represent a ceiling for the type of information that could be used for holding legislators accountable individually on votes that are not explained by party. That's because much of this information may still represent guesses based on heuristics that are not dependent on actual roll call votes. For instance, if people are guessing the positions of legislators based on district characteristics, then those guesses are not causally related to the roll call votes actually cast.

Figure 2 reports the results (tabular results available in Appendix Table F.25). The black circles represent the effects of partisanship, with $\hat{\beta}_{4j}$ in the left panel for Democrats and $\hat{\beta}_{3j}$ in the right panel for Republicans. The grey triangles represent the effects of constituent perceptions, with $\hat{\beta}_{2j}$ in the left panel and $\hat{\beta}_{1j}$ in the

right. In most cases partisanship explains a large fraction of vote behavior, and the effect of voter perceptions is indistinguishable from 0. In these cases knowing how people think their representative voted gives us no information above and beyond partisanship about how their representative actually voted. However there are a small number of exceptions, and these exceptions are instructive.

In seven out of seventy-two possible cases, either $\hat{\beta}_{1j}$ or $\hat{\beta}_{2j}$ exceeds 0.2. In these cases the model assigns more than a twenty percentage point increase in the probability that a legislator actually voted for a bill when their constituent says so. One of these cases is particularly notable. When it comes to the Patient Protection and Affordable Care Act, known as Obamacare, the model assigns 43% probability of a Democrat voting for the bill when constituents say that their legislator voted against it, and a 93% probability of voting for the bill when constituents say that their legislator voted for it, a difference ($\hat{\beta}_2$) of 50 percentage points. The process that led to the Affordable Care Act was one of the most salient public policy debates of the past few decades, resulting in a substantial change to the American healthcare system. People who guessed that their Democratic representative voted against the bill were wrong about 50% of the time, but they were still much more likely to say this if their representative actually did vote against the bill, suggesting that these guesses contain real information about the votes actually cast or the correlates of those votes. Nyhan et al. (2012) find that legislators who voted for the bill were substantially more likely to lose their reelection bids. Clinton, Sances, and Sullivan (2023) show that ACA-related votes had the strongest relationship with voter approval among the many bills they studied in every year from 2010 to 2017.

Figure 2: The relationship between perceptions and actual votes, after accounting for representative partisanship (AK Data)



Note: The circular dots represent the relationship between partisanship and a “yea” vote, with the votes of Democratic members of Congress represented in the left panel and the votes of Republicans in the right panel, respectively. The gray triangles represent the predictive power of voter perceptions on the roll call vote once party is accounted for. Data underlying this Figure come from Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022).

Appendix Figure D.16 replicates this exercise using our original data collection. In this case we find no cases of significant voter knowledge across twenty-eight votes and two parties. This difference is unlikely to have occurred by random chance, given that we found that voter perceptions contain some information in about 10% of party-by-bill cases using the AK data. It may be that this is due to a different choice of roll call votes. The Affordable Care Act was an exceptionally salient bill. Many salient bills in recent years have been party line, so party can entirely explain those roll call votes. But exceptions in our data include several impactful bills on high-profile issues, such as the vote on the January 6th Commission, a budget substantially reducing Medicaid spending, the Laken Riley Act making several petty offenses deportable, a

bill forcing the sale of TikTok to a US company, the Speak Out Act invalidating nondisclosure agreements for survivors of sexual assault, and the Protection of Women in Sports Act, which would prohibit trans women from participating in women's sports. The bar for a bill to be salient enough that constituents know where their individual legislator stands is very high, and these bills may simply not reach it.

It may also be the case that one data source or another is better at reaching a sample of constituents that is representative in terms of their knowledge of politics and public policy. Data for the CES come from YouGov, which draws from a representative pool of respondents recruited from multiple methods. These respondents often take many surveys, and respondents who self-select into such panels may be more knowledgeable than the general population. Our survey 1 was fielded by Verasight, which uses multiple methods of recruitment, but the bills we asked about on this survey were mostly party line. Our survey 2 was fielded by Cint Theorem, which provides an online convenience sample that uses demographic quotas to attempt to achieve representativeness. In Appendix E we compare responses to a slate of knowledge questions between our survey 2, the American National Election Study (ANES), and the CES. The results are ambiguous. 78% of our respondents are able to identify the House majority party, compared to 65% on the ANES in 2024 and 61% on the CES in 2024. However respondents on our survey fare much worse than ANES respondents on other questions. For instance, only 29% of our respondents knew the length of a Senate term compared to 41% on the 2024 ANES. ANES respondents performed slightly better than CES respondents on other questions.

Finally, it may well be the case that voters performed poorly on our surveys because they were not fielded in close proximity to an election, as the CES surveys were. It is well known in political science that voters are more politically knowledgeable at the end of a political campaign than at the beginning (see e.g. Alvarez, 1998; Gelman and King, 1993). Our surveys were conducted months after the 2024 election, which may have been too late for most people to remember the positions of the candidates from the previous election and too early for them to learn the votes that were being cast by incumbents and newly elected members.

Where both data sets agree is that constituent perceptions are rarely informative about whether their legislators voted against their party on roll call votes (with a notable exception in the case of the Affordable Care Act), and when it comes to most roll calls constituent guesses contain no information at all beyond that accounted for by legislator party, even on a survey with motivated respondents conducted in close proximity to an election. However it is possible that legislators face *some* consequences for their highest profile roll call votes because on these few votes constituents are somewhat more likely to guess how their legislator voted.

4.3 Multiple Heuristics Predict Perceptions Better than Actual Roll Call Votes

So far we have considered two possible explanations for constituent perceptions of their representatives’ roll call votes: (1) that constituents guess based on their representatives’ party, or (2) that constituents’ guesses depend on their representatives’ actual roll call votes. We have shown that party can account for most of people’s perceptions of roll call votes, and that perceptions of roll call votes are completely uninformative about actual roll call votes once party is accounted for, except in rare cases.

However this does not necessarily mean that legislator party is the only heuristic people use to guess the roll call votes of their legislators. There are many possible alternatives. Here we consider three. Constituents may assume that their representatives vote the same way that they themselves would. In our original surveys, we asked respondents their own view on each of the roll call votes, and we code these as binary (1=for, 0=against). We can examine whether this is related to their perceptions of how the legislator voted. Constituents may also assume that legislators have the same views as other people in their state or district. We also asked respondents whether they think “most people in your congressional district are for or against this bill?” and “most people in your state, [STATE], are for or against this bill?” For party, we ask “Do you think most [Democrats/Republicans] in Congress voted for or against this bill?” These are all plausible heuristics that may or may not predict legislator stances. But notably, none of these heuristics would be expected to help constituents hold their legislator accountable in the counterfactual that they vote differently than expected.

To examine which possible heuristics best predict perceptions of roll call votes, we first run a univariate linear regression model where the independent variable is the heuristic and the dependent variable is the respondent’s perception of the representative’s vote. We then run a pooled model using all heuristics as predictors. Respondents were asked both about their Members of Congress in the United States House of Representatives and their US Senators and we run all models for the two chambers separately. “Self” is the respondent’s own position, “District” is their perception of their district’s position, “State” is their perception of their state’s position, “Rep’s Party” is their perception of their representative’s party’s position, and “Truth” is the actual vote cast by their representative. Table 4 shows the results.

In the univariate models, every one of the available heuristics outperforms “Truth” as a predictor of perceptions, across both chambers. This is true in the combined models as well, with the exception that “State” becomes a poor predictor of the positions of House Members, who represent districts, and “District” becomes a poor predictor of the positions of Senators, who represent states. The truth is no better a predictor than even the respondent’s own position, and in the House it is substantially worse. In short, if we want to know how people believe their representative voted on a roll call vote, the truth is the last piece

Table 4: The relationship between various possible heuristics and vote predictions

	DV: Perception of MC's vote											
	House						Senate					
	Self	District	State	Rep's Party	Truth	All	Self	District	State	Rep's Party	Truth	All
Intercept	0.386 (0.012)	0.372 (0.010)	0.390 (0.010)	0.323 (0.010)	0.489 (0.009)	0.139 (0.010)	0.400 (0.028)	0.410 (0.034)	0.365 (0.032)	0.289 (0.019)	0.430 (0.015)	0.109 (0.014)
Self	0.329 (0.016)					0.172 (0.015)	0.309 (0.021)					0.156 (0.019)
District		0.366 (0.012)				0.102 (0.013)		0.312 (0.021)				0.013 (0.014)
State			0.335 (0.013)			0.064 (0.012)			0.384 (0.022)			0.117 (0.017)
Rep's Party				0.469 (0.013)		0.329 (0.014)				0.513 (0.013)		0.364 (0.016)
Truth					0.189 (0.011)	0.086 (0.008)					0.292 (0.016)	0.149 (0.016)
Observations	19,809	19,619	19,615	19,626	19,585	19,185	7,525	7,497	7,498	7,497	7,546	7,463
Adj. Rsq.	0.10	0.13	0.11	0.22	0.04	0.28	0.09	0.10	0.15	0.26	0.09	0.32
Number of MCs	421	421	421	421	421	421	69	69	69	69	69	69
Number of Rollcalls	28	28	28	28	28	28	5	5	5	5	5	5

Note: Dependent Variable is the perceived vote of the representative: “yea” = 1 and “nay” = 0. Each independent variable is coded 1 or 0. “Self” is the respondent’s position on the issue. “District” and “State” are the respondent’s perception of whether most people in their district and state support the policy, respectively. “Rep’s Party” is the respondent’s perception of how their representative’s party voted on the issue. “Truth” is the representative’s actual vote on the issue. The first six models are run on votes in the House and the last six models are run on votes in the Senate. Standard errors are clustered by representative.

of information we should reach for.

“Rep’s Party” is the best predictor by a substantial margin across models and chambers. This lends further support for a partisan theory of accountability. An observational analysis like this one does not allow us to say definitively which heuristics people actually use the most. In skewed districts, perceptions of district opinion may be as central to a person’s understanding of what parties “stand for” as votes by members of those parties in Congress. Or it may be the case that people reason from the opinion of people in their localities to make guesses about the votes cast by the parties in Congress. We can’t say which variables are causally prior. But we can say that the evidence is consistent with a theory that parties are central to organizing people’s knowledge of policy positions in American politics.

In Appendix B.1 we show that this analysis is robust to the inclusion of member fixed effects. In Appendix B.2 we analyze the only two of these heuristics that are available in the AK data: “Self” and “Truth.” The coefficients on Self are much smaller than the estimates we find in our original data collection, and we evaluate potential explanations for this. One possible reason is that these questions were asked in the same grid question on our survey, whereas they were separated by many other questions in the CES. So we would not argue that the evidence here is strong support for projection (as argued by, e.g. Wilson and Gronke, 2000). Nonetheless, if asking people their own positions is enough to substantially move their perceptions of

legislator positions, we think this is further evidence that their knowledge of individual legislator’s positions is weak.

The fact that people’s perceptions of districts are more related to their perceptions of House member roll call voting and their perceptions of states are more related to their perceptions of Senator roll call voting is a small piece of evidence that people are using heuristics reasonably. It is also eminently reasonable that party is the most prominent heuristic, given that party is the single strongest actual predictor of roll call votes in Congress. People are capable of using heuristics, but they simply don’t know how their representatives voted on individual roll call votes in cases where those representatives voted against their party.

4.4 No Evidence that Voters Can Hold Individual Legislators Accountable for Most Roll Call Votes

We are interested in knowledge of roll call votes because some causal link between roll call votes and constituent perceptions of those votes is necessary for accountability. If representatives vote against constituent wishes on roll calls, will they be held accountable in elections?

AK use actual roll calls as an instrument for knowledge of roll calls in order to test whether respondents are less likely to approve of, and ultimately vote for, representatives who cast roll-calls they disagree with. As we have seen, when a representative votes with their party this is a strong instrument, but otherwise it is negatively related to perceived votes. So not surprisingly, AK’s results on accountability hold when we look at representatives who vote with their party, but not otherwise.

In the first two columns of Table 5, we replicate AK’s reduced form results on accountability, showing that *Actual Issue Agreement* predicts approval and vote choice. The third and fourth columns of Table 5 replicate AK’s results only for representatives who vote with the majority of their party. These results are very close to the overall results reported by AK. In every time period, both party agreement and issue agreement are associated with approval and vote choice of members of Congress. However there is no within-party variation in representative positions. What this shows is that people who agree with the Democratic Party on the issues are more likely to vote for Democrats, and people who agree with the Republican Party on the issues are more likely to vote for Republicans.

The fifth and sixth columns of Table 5 replicate AK’s results only for representatives who did not vote with the majority of their party. Now actual agreement is a poor, and even negative predictor of perceived agreement. A likely reason why the coefficient is negative is that people who know the position of the party are more likely to be mistaken about the position of their representative (see also Dancey and Sheagley, 2013). These voters are also more likely to cast a vote for the party that is more aligned with their issue

Table 5: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) Table 2

	Original		Legislator voted with their party		Legislator voted against their party	
	Outcome: Approval	Outcome: Vote Choice	Outcome: Approval	Outcome: Vote Choice	Outcome: Approval	Outcome: Vote Choice
Actual Issue Agreement	0.23 (0.01)	0.20 (0.01)	0.22 (0.01)	0.20 (0.01)	-0.05 (0.01)	-0.05 (0.01)
Actual Party Agreement	0.22 (0.01)	0.35 (0.01)	0.21 (0.01)	0.34 (0.01)	0.20 (0.01)	0.38 (0.03)
Observations	42,559	24,051	42,139	23,928	9,447	4,495
Average of outcome	0.07	0.23	0.07	0.23	0.04	0.17
R-squared	0.39	0.48	0.39	0.49	0.29	0.50
Number of MCs	847	786	845	783	571	485
Number of Rollcalls	36	29	36	29	35	29

Note: Each column shows the coefficients from an OLS regression, with standard errors in parentheses. Controls, representative fixed effects, and year fixed effects not shown. Standard errors are clustered by representative.

positions. So in this case, voters who disagree with the legislator’s roll call vote are more likely to vote for that legislator.

These results do not imply that there is no accountability in American politics. On the contrary, we have shown that people are substantially better than chance at guessing the positions of the respective parties. They have a strong tendency to support legislators from the party that better represents their own positions. However there is no evidence that knowledge of positions results from the actual roll call votes cast by the respondent’s representative, and people show little evidence that they know when their particular representative has cast a vote differently than the majority of her party.

5 Conclusion

Our reanalysis of data from Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) shows that people are only better than chance at guessing the roll call votes of their representatives in Congress when those representatives vote with their party. The data do not provide evidence that voters have knowledge of the individual roll call votes cast by their representatives except in rare cases. However in our original data collection people demonstrate the ability to guess the partisanship of their representative as well as the roll call positions taken by the majority of representatives of each party.

These results fit well with a body of research that emphasizes the small effects of roll call voting on the accountability of individual legislators in Congress (Caughey and Warshaw, 2019; Bonica, Rhee, and Studen, 2025; Tausanovitch and Warshaw, 2018). Individual representatives may face limited consequences for most of the roll call votes they cast because people rarely learn about those votes, at least in our current

representational equilibrium. Instead, the evidence is consistent with the theory that representatives are mainly punished or rewarded for the collective policy reputation of their party. Poor dyadic accountability does not preclude the possibility of collective representation (e.g. Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki, 2026) via parties.

If the partisan theory of accountability is correct, Senators and members of the House of Representatives face a colossal collective action problem. Each individual legislator has little incentive to tailor their roll call voting behavior for electoral advantage. But the policy stances of the majority of each party affect the reputation of the party as a whole, and thereby affect the electoral prospects of each individual member.

An important direction for future research is to better understand who defines the positions of the parties in the eyes of the public, and what it takes for the partisan tilt of roll call votes to change perceptions. We know that people’s guesses about the party positions are accurate most of the time. What we don’t know is why.

This paper has focused on what people know about the policy positions of parties and individual legislators. It doesn’t consider the possibility that political views are themselves endogenous to parties (Lenz, 2012). In that case it would be particularly important to know when and how people learn about the policy positions of the parties. In either case, there is little evidence that people can punish their own representatives for deviating from the party line.

DATA AVAILABILITY STATEMENT

Research documentation and data that support the findings of this study will be available at the American Political Science Review Dataverse upon publication: <https://doi.org/10.7910/DVN/JJXLCG>. Data includes only the necessary data from Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022), but full data can be found at: <https://doi.org/10.7910/DVN/QOVWMM>. Full congressional roll call data can be found at: <https://voteview.com/data>.

CONFLICT OF INTEREST

The authors declare no ethical issues or conflicts of interest in this research.

ETHICAL STANDARDS

The authors declare that the human-subjects research in this article was reviewed and approved by the UCLA Institutional Review Board, IRB-24-5764.

The authors affirm that this article adheres to the principles concerning research with human participants laid out in the APSA’s Principles and Guidance for Human Subject Research (2020).

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A Generalizability of the Results in Table 1

A.1 Defections are Common

Figure A.1 shows a histogram of the percent of the times that legislators voted with their party for the 117th to the 119th Congresses. Very few legislators have perfect records of voting with their party. Eight members have a perfect record of voting with their party, but they are members who cast very few votes because they only served part of a term. Of the eight, three are House Democrats: Cedric Richmond (16 votes), Erica Lee Carter (61 votes), James R. Walkinshaw (38 votes); two are Democratic delegates to the House whose votes do not count towards the passage of legislation: Michael San Nicolas (Guam, 14 votes), Pablo José Hernández (Puerto Rico, 41 votes); one is a Senate Democrat: Kamala Harris (2 votes); one is a House Republican: Ron Wright (30 votes); and one is a Senate Republican: Kelly Loeffler (2 votes). Members cast an average of 940 votes in the 117th Congress, 1090 votes in the 118th Congress, and 320 thus far in the 119th Congress. A.2 shows these percents graphed against DW-Nominate scores. Defections are more common among moderate and extreme members of each party, as we might expect from spatial voting theory. Figure A.3 shows this relationship only for roll calls that are included in the analysis of AK’s data, and Figure A.4 shows this relationship only for roll calls that are included in the analyses based on our original data. Both data sets have broad coverage.

This variation and coverage allows us to test the generalizability of our findings. All types of members defect from their party sometimes, and many types of votes incur defections. Using this variation, we can test different hypotheses about how our results differ for different types of members or votes.

Figure A.1: Histograms of Percent of Votes with Party (117th - 119th Congress)

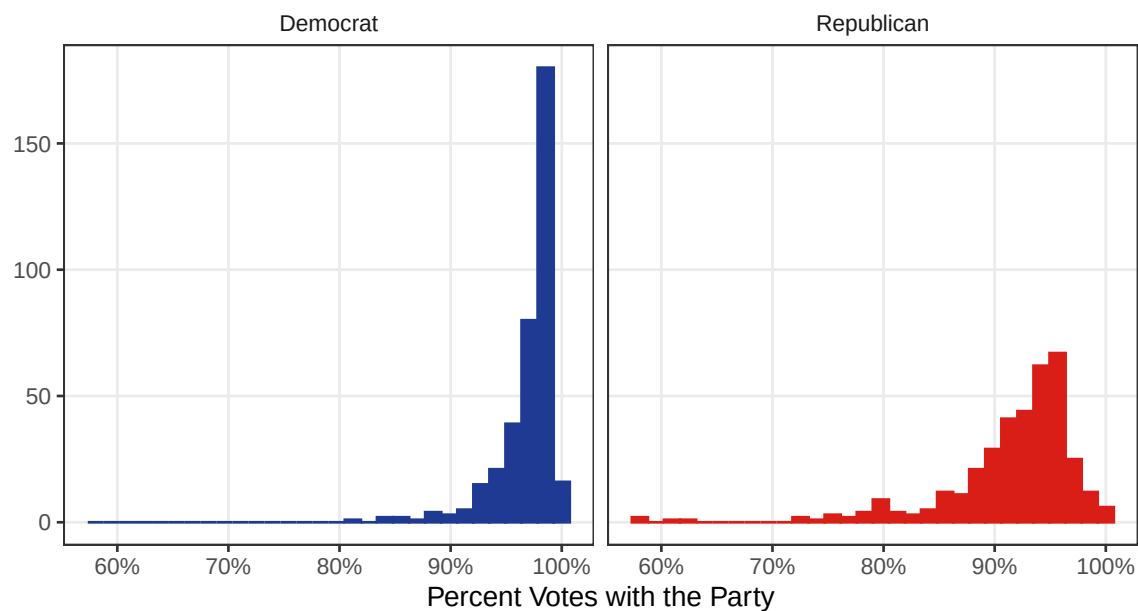
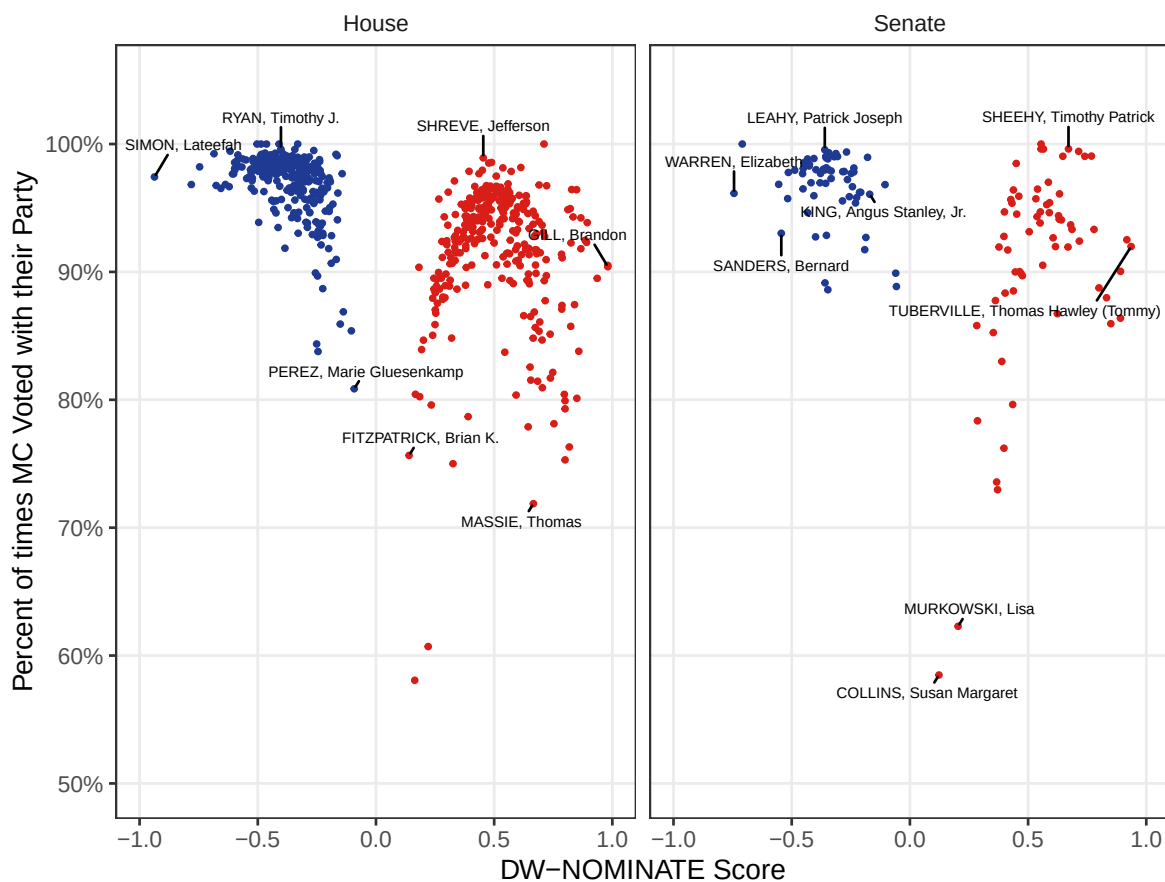
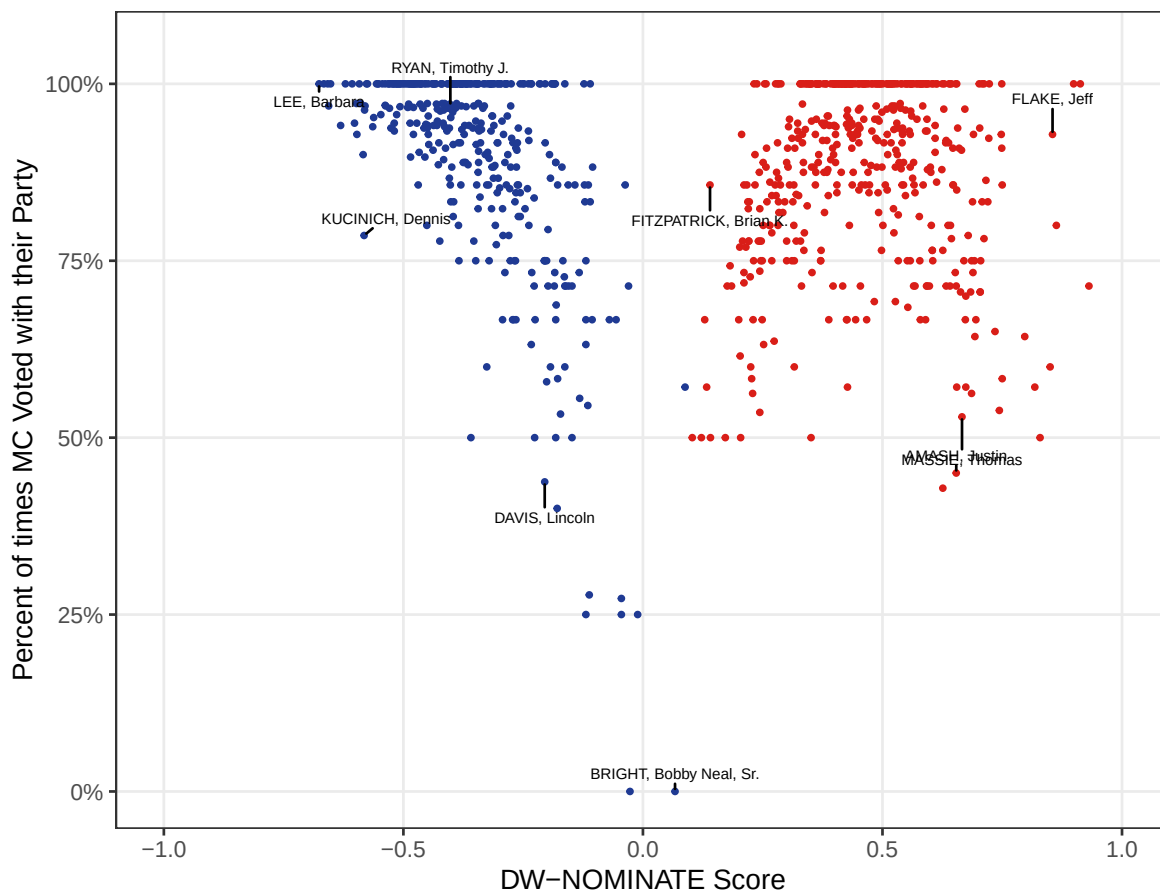


Figure A.2: Percent of voting with party plotted against DW-NOMINATE (117th - 119th Congress)



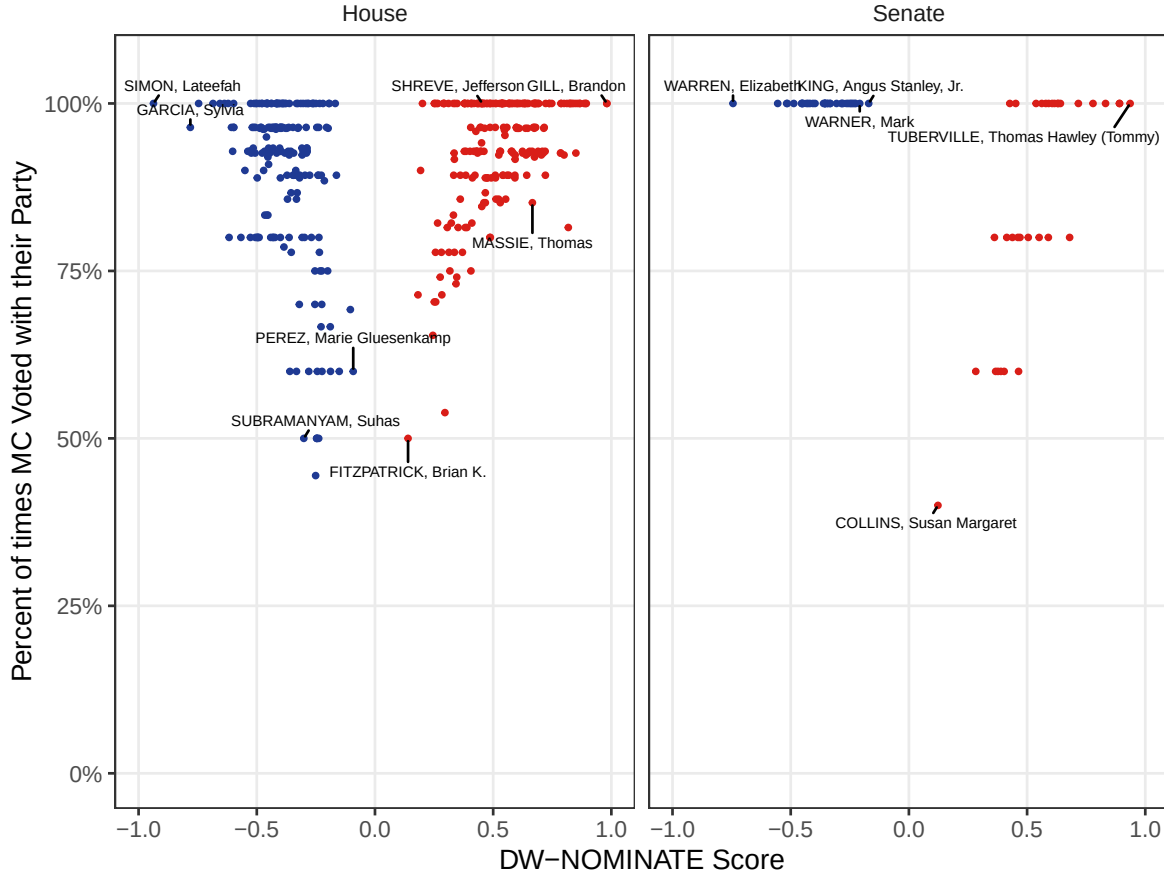
Note: DW-NOMINATE scores are from each MC's entire career (getting a new score for chamber switches or party switches). Vertical axis is the percent of votes in which a legislator voted with the majority of their party. Data are from the 117th - 119th Congresses. Following AK, we label Bernie Sanders as a Democrat. We also label Independents who caucus with the Democrats as Democrats.

Figure A.3: Percent of voting with party plotted against DW-NOMINATE for roll calls in the AK data



Note: DW-NOMINATE scores are from each MC's entire career (getting a new score for chamber switches or party switches). Vertical axis is the percent of votes in which a legislator voted with the majority of their party. Following AK, we label Bernie Sanders as a Democrat. We also label Independents who caucus with the Democrats as Democrats. Data are from AK.

Figure A.4: Percent of voting with party plotted against DW-NOMINATE for roll calls in the original data collection



Note: DW-NOMINATE scores are from each MC's entire career (getting a new score for chamber switches or party switches). Vertical axis is the percent of votes in which a legislator voted with the majority of their party. Following AK, we label Bernie Sanders as a Democrat. We also label Independents who caucus with the Democrats as Democrats. Data are from our study.

A.2 Results Generalize to Non-Moderate Members

In this section we classify Members of Congress who are in the most moderate third of MCs in the AK data according to their DW-Nominate score as moderates, and all other members as non-moderates. We show that the central results of our paper extend to the constituents of non-moderate members, who account for fewer party defections.

Table A.1: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) Table 3 For Moderate and Non-Moderate MCs

	Original		Non-Moderate MCs		Moderate MCs	
	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement
Actual Issue Agreement	-0.14 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)	-0.15 (0.03)	-0.02 (0.01)	-0.13 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)
Actual Party Agreement	0.05 (0.01)	0.58 (0.01)	0.06 (0.02)	0.60 (0.02)	0.04 (0.02)	0.58 (0.02)
Actual Ideological Agreement	0.23 (0.03)	0.15 (0.02)	0.28 (0.05)	0.15 (0.03)	0.18 (0.04)	0.17 (0.02)
Observations	10,024	10,520	3,501	3,776	6,523	6,744
Average of outcome	0.03	0.06	0.06	0.11	0.01	0.03
Std. dev. of outcome	0.75	0.71	0.77	0.69	0.74	0.72
R-squared	0.12	0.54	0.17	0.61	0.10	0.51
F-statistic for weak instruments	55	1,220	24	413	35	806
Number of MCs	547	572	316	340	231	232
Number of Rollcalls	35	35	32	32	35	35

Note: Each column shows the coefficients from an OLS regression, with standard errors in parentheses. Controls, representative fixed effects, and year fixed effects not shown. Standard errors are clustered by representative. The first two columns replicate columns 5-6 in our Table 1. The second two columns are the same model run on Non-Moderate MCs, defined as the two-thirds of MCs with the highest absolute DW-Nominate scores. The last two columns are the same model run on Moderate MCs, the one-third of MCs with the smallest absolute DW-Nominate score. Many Non-Moderate MCs did not cast a vote against their party in the AK data, making the number of MCs (Number of Clusters) in the second two columns not exactly double the size of the number of MCs in the last two columns.

Table A.2: Voters' Predictions of their Representatives' Party Affiliations (Non-Moderate Members)

Position	Not sure	Never heard of	Correctly Identified Party	Incorrectly Identified Party
Representative	17%	16%	56%	11%
Junior Senator	11%	8%	70%	11%
Senior Senator	14%	11%	63%	12%

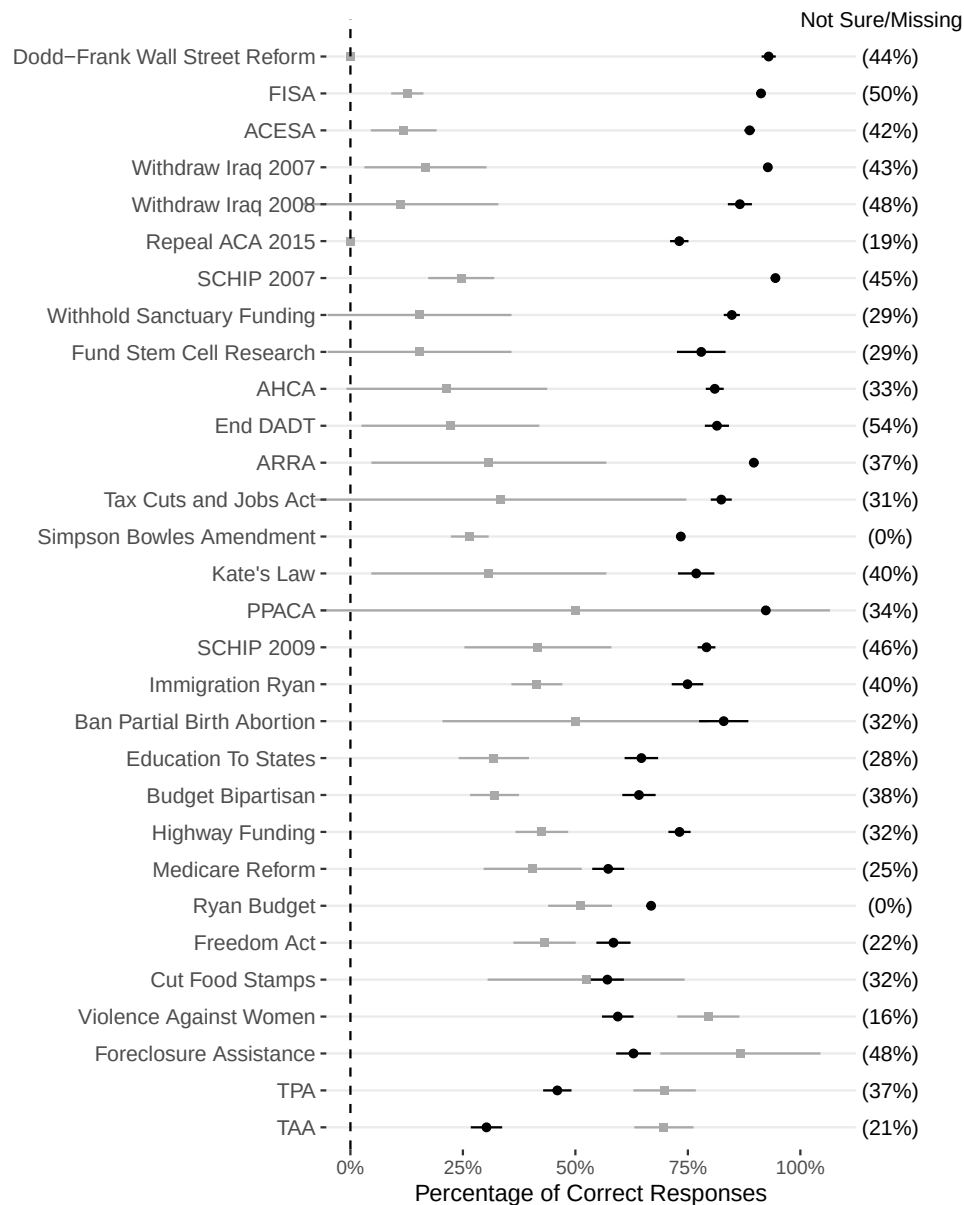
Note: Percentages are calculated as a fraction of all respondents.

Table A.3: Voters' Knowledge of Each Party's Position (Non-Moderate Members)

Type of Vote	Republican Position			Democratic Position		
	Voter Party			Voter Party		
	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.
Both Party Line	65%	67%	70%	66%	68%	71%
Democrats Party Line	47%	55%	61%	64%	67%	72%
Republicans Party Line	75%	72%	72%	54%	55%	55%

Note: The percentages in each column represent the fraction of all respondents who correctly identified the position of each party across each type of vote. We define "Party Line" as votes where at least 95% of the members of a party voted with the majority of their party. The first three columns show the correct percentage for the Republican position on each vote, and the second three columns show the correct percentage for the Democratic position on each vote. Percentages of correct perceptions are further broken down by respondent self-reported partisanship (Republican in columns 1 and 4, Independent / Other in 2 and 5, Democrat in 3 and 6). The party's position on each issue is defined as the side that the majority of representatives of that party voted for. Same as Table 3 but moderate members have been removed.

Figure A.5: Percent of Correct Perceptions by whether a Representative votes With or Against their Party (Non-Moderate Members)



Note: The horizontal axis plots the percent of correct perceptions on each roll call vote listed on the left vertical axis. The percentage of correct perceptions is only among respondents who responded other than “Not Sure.” Black circles represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted with their party’s majority, and grey squares represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted against their party’s majority. The percentage of respondents who answered “Not Sure” or did not provide a prediction for each condition is reported in the parentheses on the right vertical axis. Lines represent 95% confidence intervals. Data underlying this Figure come from Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022). (Non-Moderate Members)

A.3 Results Generalize to Members who Account for Fewer Defections

In this Appendix we classify Members of Congress who account for more votes that defect from their party as “mavericks,” starting with the member who accounts for the most defecting votes and counting members down the list until they account for half of all defecting votes, with the remaining members classified as non-mavericks. We show that the central results of our paper extend to the constituents of non-maverick members.

Table A.4: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) Table 3 For Maverick and Non-Maverick MCs

	Original		Non-Maverick MCs		Maverick MCs	
	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement
Actual Issue Agreement	-0.14 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)	-0.13 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)	-0.15 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)
Actual Party Agreement	0.05 (0.01)	0.58 (0.01)	0.08 (0.02)	0.59 (0.02)	0.03 (0.02)	0.58 (0.02)
Actual Ideological Agreement	0.23 (0.03)	0.15 (0.02)	0.24 (0.04)	0.14 (0.02)	0.22 (0.04)	0.17 (0.02)
Observations	10,024	10,520	4,210	4,551	5,814	5,969
Average of outcome	0.03	0.06	0.06	0.09	0.01	0.04
Std. dev. of outcome	0.75	0.71	0.76	0.70	0.74	0.72
R-squared	0.12	0.54	0.16	0.57	0.10	0.52
F-statistic for weak instruments	55	1,220	32	493	31	724
Number of MCs	547	572	341	364	206	208
Number of Rollcalls	35	35	31	31	35	35

Note: Each column shows the coefficients from an OLS regression, with standard errors in parentheses. Controls, representative fixed effects, and year fixed effects not shown. Standard errors are clustered by representative. The first two columns replicate columns 5-6 in our Table 1. The second two columns are the same model run on Non-Maverick MCs, and the last two columns are the same model run on Maverick MCs. We have split the data such that the unique defecting votes in our data are evenly split between the two sets of columns. There are fewer MCs (Number of Clusters) in the last two columns because maverick MCs tend to account for more defecting votes on average.

Table A.5: Voters' Predictions of their Representatives' Party Affiliations (Non-Maverick Members)

Position	Not sure	Never heard of	Correctly Identified Party	Incorrectly Identified Party
Representative	17%	16%	54%	13%
Junior Senator	11%	6%	74%	9%
Senior Senator	14%	9%	64%	13%

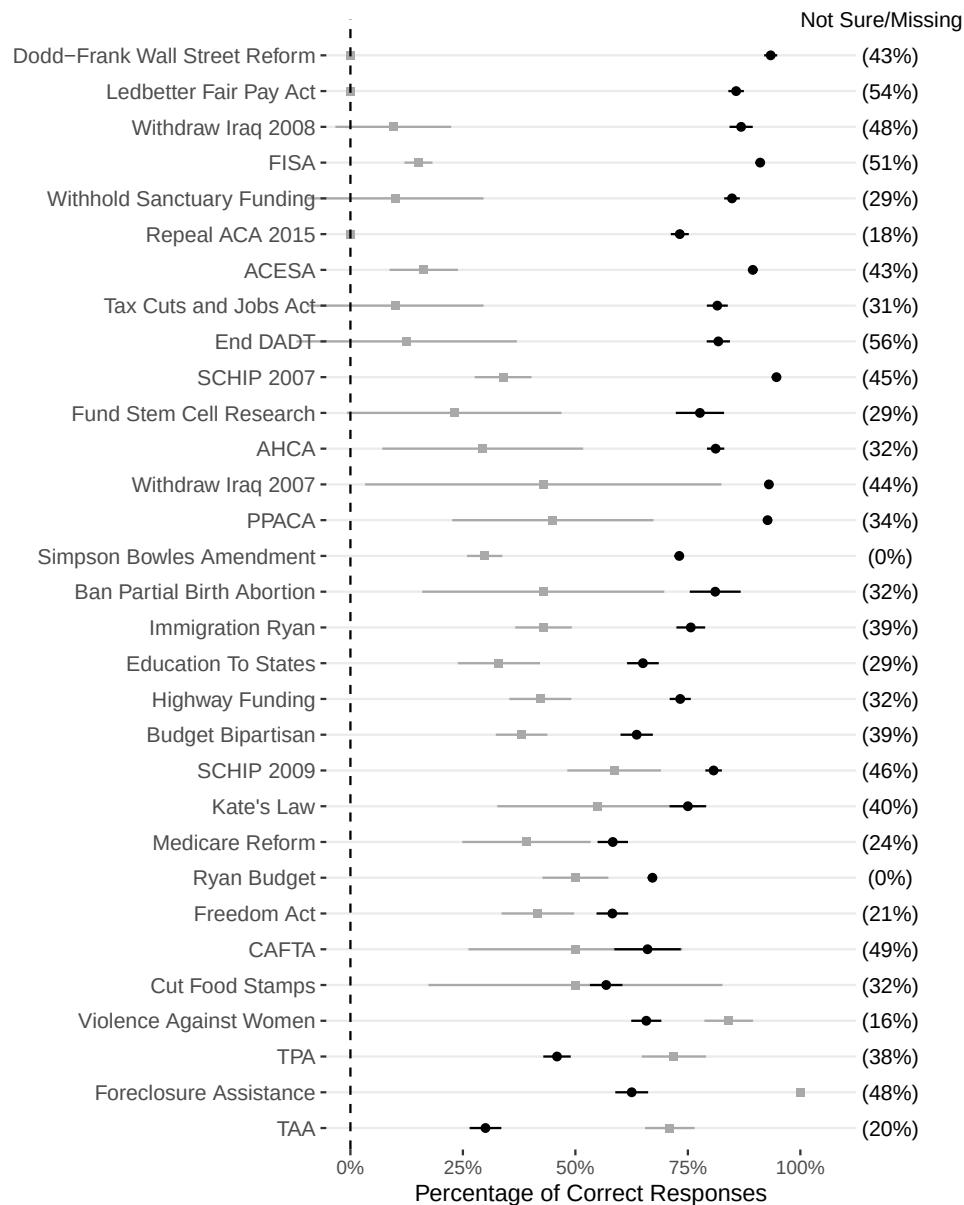
Note: Percentages are calculated as a fraction of all respondents.

Table A.6: Voters' Knowledge of Each Party's Position (Non-Maverick Members)

Type of Vote	Republican Position			Democratic Position		
	Voter Party			Voter Party		
	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.
Both Party Line	63%	66%	70%	67%	68%	72%
Democrats Party Line	46%	56%	60%	66%	66%	73%
Republicans Party Line	77%	70%	73%	54%	55%	56%

Note: The percentages in each column represent the fraction of all respondents who correctly identified the position of each party across each type of vote. We define "Party Line" as votes where at least 95% of the members of a party voted with the majority of their party. The first three columns show the correct percentage for the Republican position on each vote, and the second three columns show the correct percentage for the Democratic position on each vote. Percentages of correct perceptions are further broken down by respondent self-reported partisanship (Republican in columns 1 and 4, Independent / Other in 2 and 5, Democrat in 3 and 6). The party's position on each issue is defined as the side that the majority of representatives of that party voted for. Same as Table 3 but removed lifetime maverick members.

Figure A.6: Percent of Correct Perceptions by whether a Representative votes With or Against their Party (Non-Maverick Members)



Note: The horizontal axis plots the percent of correct perceptions on each roll call vote listed on the left vertical axis. The percentage of correct perceptions is only among respondents who responded other than “Not Sure.” Black circles represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted with their party’s majority, and grey squares represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted against their party’s majority. The percentage of respondents who answered “Not Sure” or did not provide a prediction for each condition is reported in the parentheses on the right vertical axis. Lines represent 95% confidence intervals. Data underlying this Figure come from Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022). (Non-Maverick Members)

A.4 Results Generalize to Defections from the Extremes

In this Appendix we classify roll calls where a majority of Members of Congress who voted against their party are in the more moderate half of their party by DW-Nominate score as “moderate defection votes” and the rest as “extreme defection votes.” We show that we get very similar results to the ones reported in Table 1 for both types of votes.

Table A.7: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) Table 3 by Defection Type

	Original		Moderate Defector Vote		Extreme Defector Vote	
	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Issue Agreement	Outcome: Perceived Party Agreement
Actual Issue Agreement	-0.14 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)	-0.14 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.01)	-0.09 (0.03)	-0.03 (0.02)
Actual Party Agreement	0.05 (0.01)	0.58 (0.01)	0.05 (0.01)	0.59 (0.01)	-0.02 (0.04)	0.59 (0.03)
Actual Ideological Agreement	0.23 (0.03)	0.15 (0.02)	0.25 (0.03)	0.17 (0.02)	0.12 (0.07)	0.10 (0.04)
Observations	10,024	10,520	8,750	9,121	1,418	1,616
Average of outcome	0.03	0.06	0.03	0.06	0.02	0.07
Std. dev. of outcome	0.75	0.71	0.76	0.72	0.74	0.66
R-squared	0.12	0.54	0.13	0.53	0.22	0.63
F-statistic for weak instruments	55	1,220	53	1,056	5	266
Number of MCs	547	572	407	421	250	273
Number of Rollcalls	35	35	28	28	7	7

Note: Each column shows the coefficients from an OLS regression, with standard errors in parentheses. Controls, representative fixed effects, and year fixed effects not shown. Standard errors are clustered by representative.

B Further Analyses of Heuristics Results (Table 4)

B.1 Heuristics Analysis Unchanged by Member Fixed Effects

In this appendix we show that the results in Table 4 are unchanged by the addition of member fixed effects.

Table B.8: The relationship between various possible heuristics and vote predictions (Member fixed effects)

	DV: Perception of MC's vote											
	House						Senate					
	Self	District	State	Rep's Party	Truth	All	Self	District	State	Rep's Party	Truth	All
Intercept	0.298 (0.010)	0.267 (0.008)	0.272 (0.009)	0.174 (0.010)	0.384 (0.007)	0.004 (0.010)	0.357 (0.013)	0.377 (0.012)	0.385 (0.009)	0.346 (0.006)	0.513 (0.005)	0.216 (0.011)
Self	0.311 (0.016)					0.166 (0.015)	0.295 (0.020)					0.157 (0.019)
District		0.345 (0.012)				0.101 (0.013)		0.276 (0.020)				0.011 (0.014)
State			0.316 (0.013)			0.063 (0.011)			0.345 (0.019)			0.123 (0.016)
Rep's Party				0.448 (0.013)		0.319 (0.015)				0.460 (0.014)		0.353 (0.016)
Truth					0.182 (0.012)	0.083 (0.008)					0.149 (0.027)	0.072 (0.019)
Observations	19,809	19,619	19,615	19,626	19,585	19,185	7,525	7,497	7,498	7,497	7,546	7,463
Adj. Rsq.	0.14	0.16	0.15	0.24	0.08	0.30	0.18	0.17	0.21	0.29	0.10	0.33
Number of MCs	421	421	421	421	421	421	69	69	69	69	69	69
Number of Rollcalls	28	28	28	28	28	28	5	5	5	5	5	5

Note: Dependent Variable is the perceived vote of the representative: “yea” = 1 and “nay” = 0. Each independent variable is coded 1 or 0. “Self” is the respondent’s position on the issue. “District” and “State” are the respondent’s perception of whether most people in their district and state support the policy, respectively. “Rep’s Party” is the respondent’s perception of how their representative’s party voted on the issue. “Truth” is the representative’s actual vote on the issue. The first six models are run on votes in the House and the last six models are run on votes in the Senate. Standard errors are clustered by representative. All models run with MC fixed effects.

B.2 Further analysis of “Self” vs. “Truth” using AK data

In this appendix we replicate the results of Table 4 using the only two variables that are available in the AK data: “Self” and “Truth”. Because AK only have House data, we restrict analyses using our data in this section to perceptions of House member votes. Furthermore, because nearly every vote in the AK data uses a respondent’s first guess (not a follow up if they initially responded “Not sure”), we also only use the first responses in our data. In the main text we include follow up predictions, but to directly compare the two datasets, in this section we only use first responses. Table B.9 shows that the results differ from our original data. The rest of this appendix attempts to determine why. The difference in results exists across the roll calls in both datasets, as shown in the comparison between Figure B.7 and Figure B.8. Figures B.9 and B.10 show that this does not seem to be the result of an over time trend.

In Figure B.11 we show that the results in the AK data are more similar to the results in the original

Table B.9: The relationship between the “Self” and “Truth” heuristics and vote predictions in original data and AK Data

	DV: Perception of MC’s vote					
	Original data			AK data		
	Ours	Ours	Ours	AK	AK	AK
Intercept	0.432 (0.016)	0.483 (0.011)	0.297 (0.017)	0.435 (0.005)	0.239 (0.004)	0.205 (0.004)
Self	0.306 (0.022)		0.292 (0.021)	0.136 (0.006)		0.080 (0.004)
Truth		0.248 (0.013)	0.240 (0.014)		0.509 (0.007)	0.500 (0.007)
Observations	11,787	12,763	11,595	112,014	112,014	112,014
Adj. Rsq.	0.09	0.06	0.15	0.02	0.26	0.26
Number of MCs	414	415	414	843	843	843
Number of Rollcalls	28	28	28	36	36	36

Note: Dependent variable is the perceived vote of the representative: “yea” = 1 and “nay” = 0. Each independent variable is coded 1 or 0. “Self” is the respondent’s position on the issue. “Truth” is the representative’s actual vote on the issue. The first three models are run on our original data and the second three models are run on data from AK. Because AK only includes predictions of House Member votes, to facilitate direct comparisons between the two data sources, the first three models are only run on House Members in our data, not Senators.

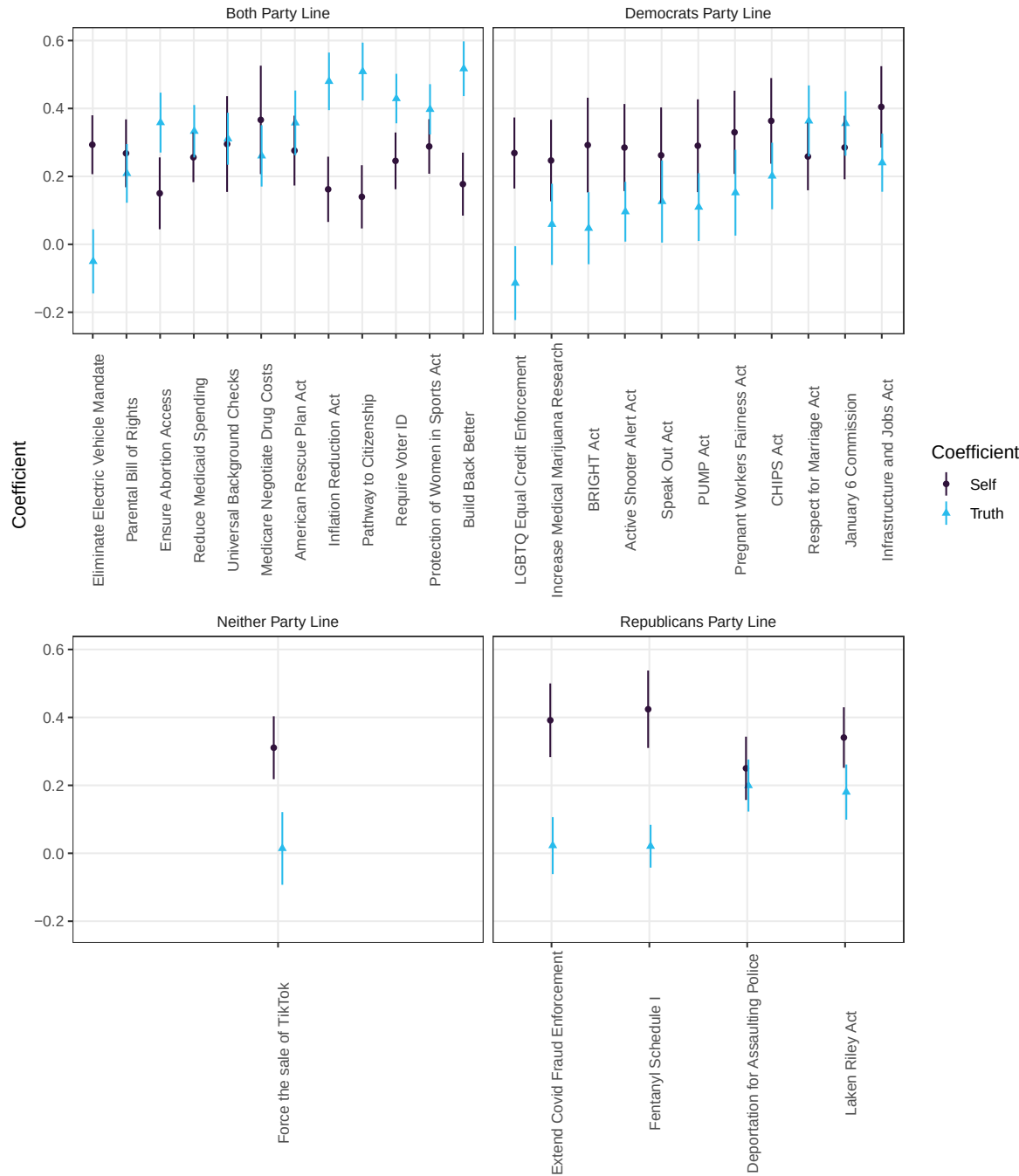
data at higher levels of knowledge. This could be one reason for the difference in results, but Appendix E finds ambiguous results regarding differences in political knowledge across survey types.

Another possible cause is that evaluations of personal views and evaluations of legislator views occur in the same question block in our original survey (see Appendix G.3). But we will see that our test of this hypothesis is not dispositive.

To analyze how asking voters’ own opinions and their perceptions of their representatives’ votes in closer proximity may affect the relative size of the Self and Truth coefficients, we compare four of our questions to four questions that were also asked in the 2022 CES Common Content and Harvard Team Module. These CES items are not included in the original AK data as they are from a more recent CES. For the large majority of data used in AK, the respondent’s own opinion was asked in one section of the survey (the “Common Content”), and their perception of their representative’s vote was asked in a different section (the “Team Module”). This meant that the two questions were separated by many questions. In contrast to the distance between these two questions in the AK data, we ask respondents these two questions on the same survey page, as part of a grid with a shared question stem (the order was randomized).

Using the 2022 CES Common Content and Harvard Team Module we are able to make a direct comparison between the two datasets. The 2022 CES asks respondents about four of the same bills we ask about with the same wording. In addition, the respondents’ own opinion on three of the four bills is asked both in the

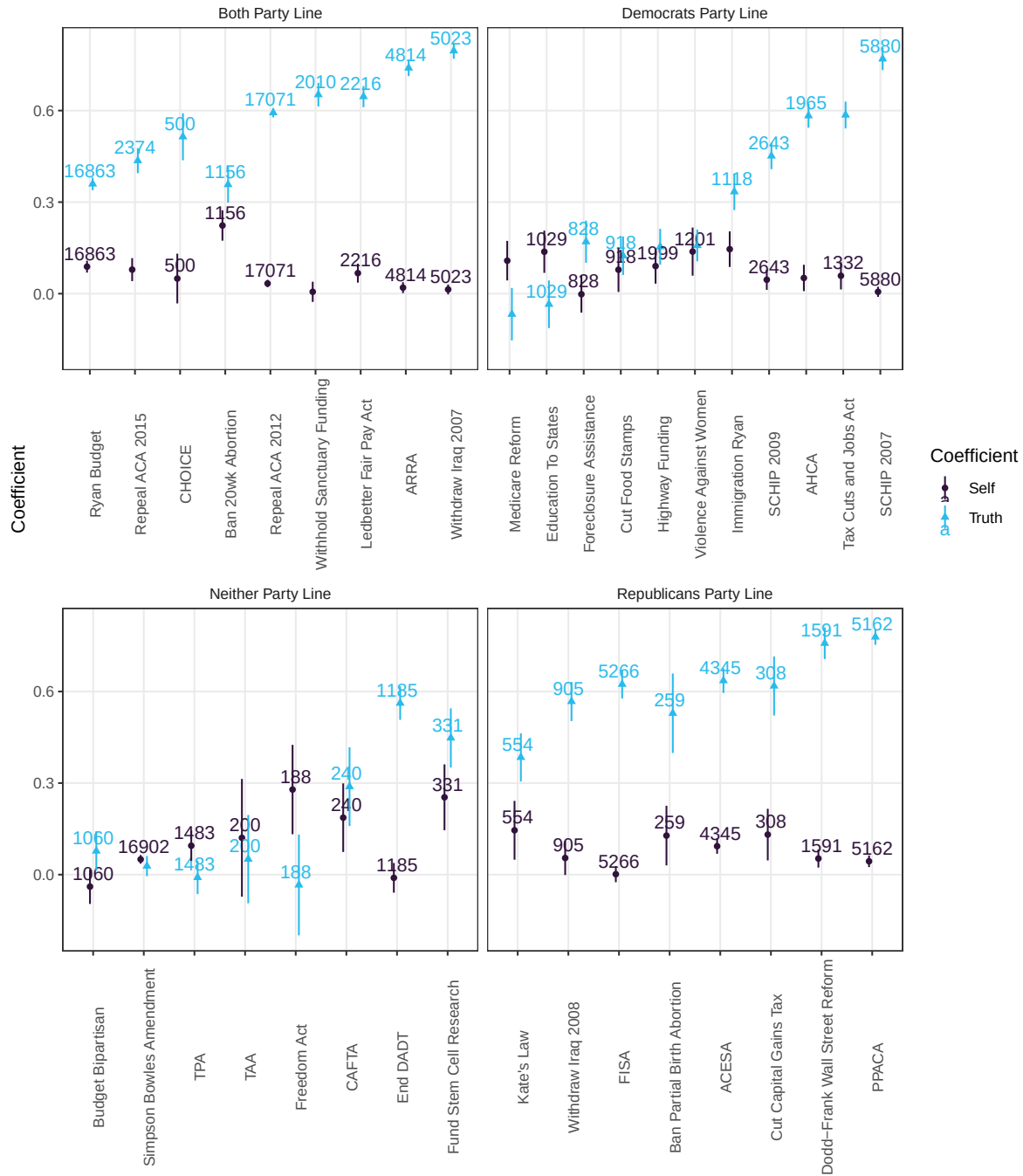
Figure B.7: Self v. Truth Coefficients by Roll Call and Roll Call Type in the Original Data



Note: The horizontal axis plots individual roll call votes. On the vertical axis we plot the coefficients for “Self” and “Truth” in a regression predicting a voter’s prediction of their representative’s vote. The figure is faceted by the type of vote. Standard errors are clustered by Member of Congress.

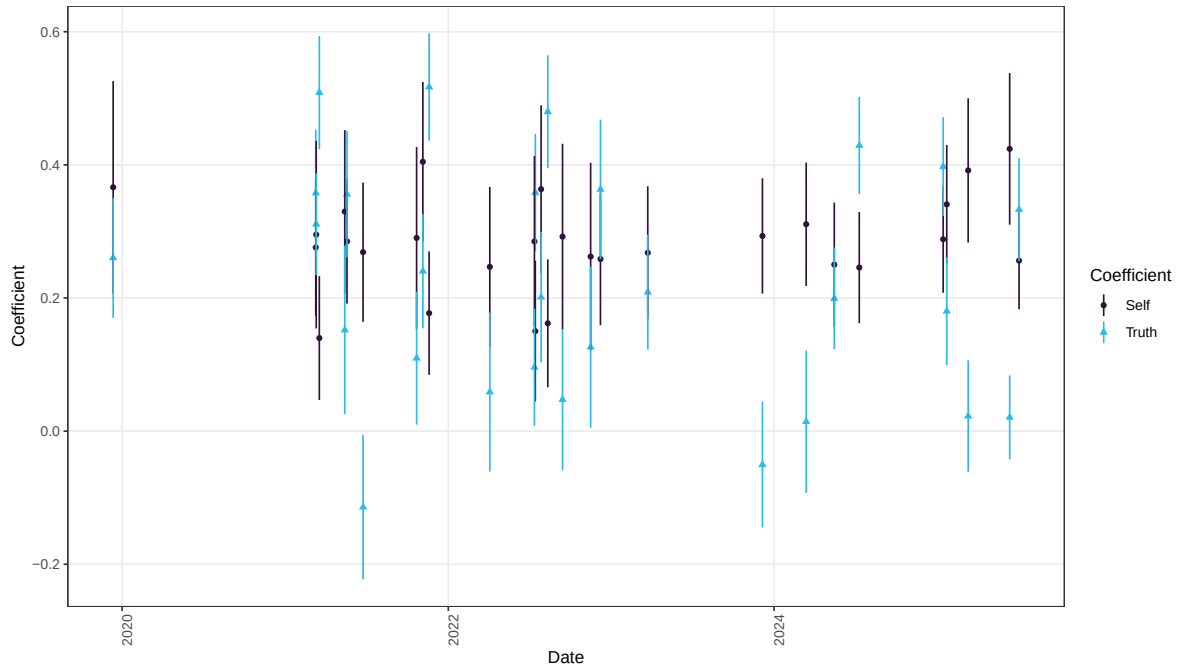
common content and the team module. The Common Content Self question is distant from the perception question, but the Self question in the Team Module is asked just a page or two before the perception question.

Figure B.8: Self v. Truth Coefficients by Roll Call and Roll Call Type in the AK Data



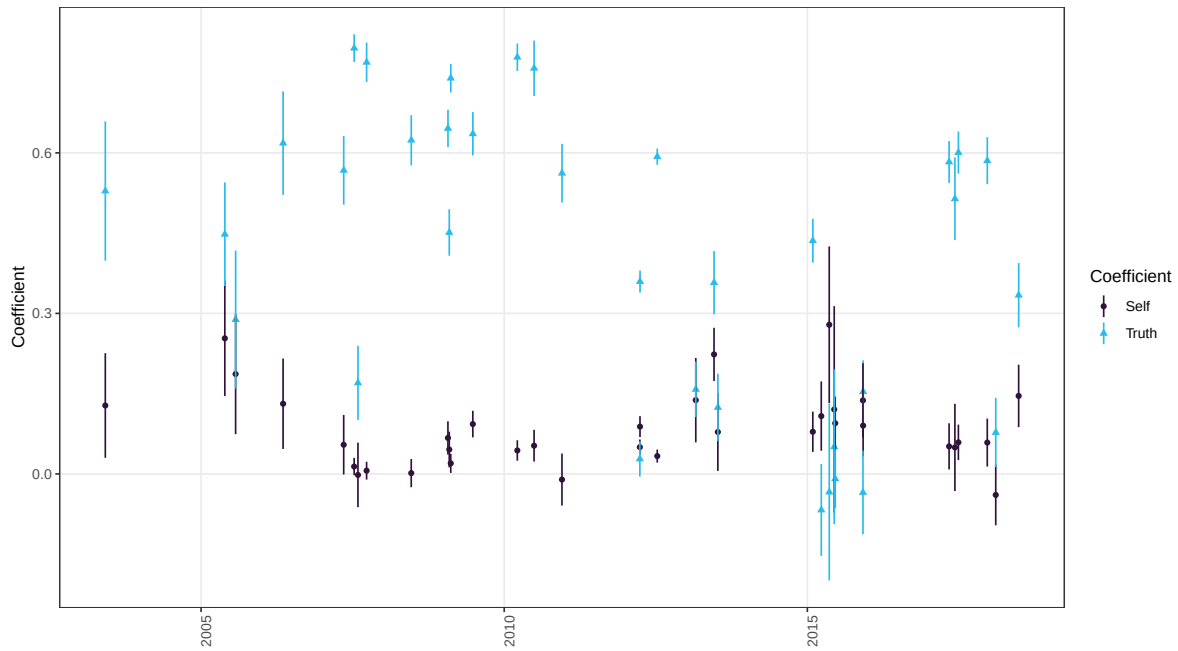
Note: The horizontal axis plots individual roll call votes. On the vertical axis we plot the coefficients for “Self” and “Truth” in a regression predicting a voter’s perception of their representative’s vote. The figure is faceted by the type of vote. Standard errors are clustered by MC. The number of observations in each regression is reported because the number of respondents in AK modules and Common Content varied each year. AK Data.

Figure B.9: Self v. Truth Coefficients in the Original Data Over Time



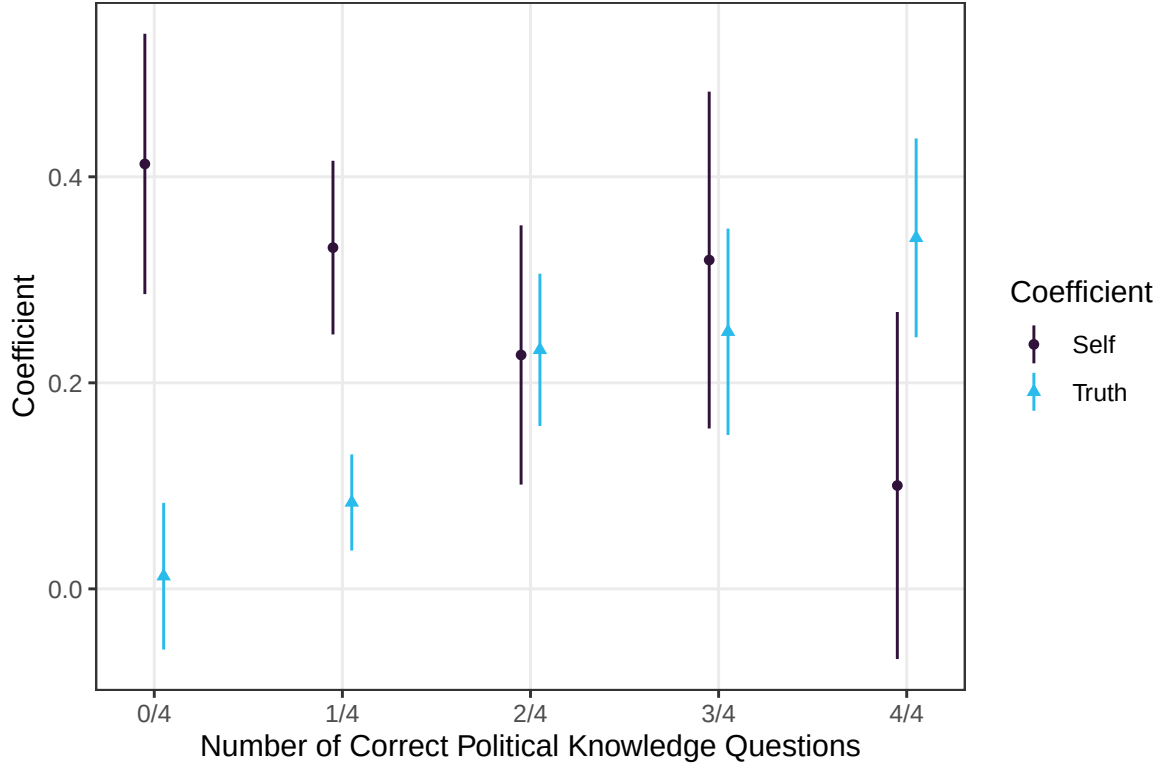
Note: The horizontal axis plots the date a roll call vote took place. Original Data.

Figure B.10: Self v. Truth Coefficients in the AK Data Over Time



Note: The horizontal axis plots the date a roll call vote took place. AK Data

Figure B.11: Self v. Truth Coefficients by Voter Knowledge



Note: The horizontal axis plots the number of political knowledge questions we asked voters on our second survey. We asked four questions (see Appendix E). On the vertical axis we plot the coefficients for “Self” and “Truth” in a regression predicting a voter’s prediction of their representative’s vote. Standard errors are clustered by MC.

That means we can run separate regressions testing the Self and Truth heuristics using the Common Content opinion (more distant) and Team Module opinion (closer).

The four bills we analyze are the Infrastructure and Jobs Act, Ensure Abortion Access, American Rescue Plan, and Pathway to Citizenship. Pathway to Citizenship was only asked on the Team Module. We run a separate regression for each bill and question format. While in the main text of the paper if a voter did not initially provide a guess, we input the answer they gave on a follow up question, to facilitate as direct a comparison between the two datasets, we—like the Common Content and Team Module—include only voters who made a guess when first asked. Additionally, because the CES items are about House representatives, in our data we only include perceptions of House members, though two of the votes took place in both chambers.

Table B.10: The relationship between the “Self” and “Truth” heuristics and vote predictions when the two questions are asked in closer proximity in our data and the CES

	DV: Perception of MC's vote										
	CES Common Content			CES Team Module				Original Data			
	Infrastructure (CC)	Abortion (CC)	Am. Rescue (CC)	Infrastructure (Module)	Abortion (Module)	Am. Rescue (Module)	Dreamers (Module)	Infrastructure (Our)	Abortion (Our)	Am. Rescue (Our)	Dreamers (Our)
Intercept	0.301 (0.055)	0.249 (0.034)	0.302 (0.033)	0.263 (0.047)	0.217 (0.039)	0.257 (0.037)	0.110 (0.028)	0.217 (0.058)	0.196 (0.043)	0.228 (0.044)	0.215 (0.040)
Self (CC)	0.139 (0.053)	0.091 (0.034)	-0.034 (0.033)								
Self				0.185 (0.045)	0.148 (0.042)	0.034 (0.037)	0.133 (0.034)	0.405 (0.061)	0.150 (0.054)	0.276 (0.052)	0.140 (0.047)
Truth	0.440 (0.040)	0.372 (0.038)	0.589 (0.034)	0.449 (0.042)	0.387 (0.039)	0.603 (0.036)	0.651 (0.034)	0.240 (0.044)	0.358 (0.045)	0.358 (0.048)	0.509 (0.043)
Observations	639	673	610	596	611	558	603	375	393	358	401
Adj. Rsq.	0.23	0.15	0.35	0.25	0.18	0.38	0.46	0.16	0.15	0.22	0.29
Number of Clusters	321	316	309	315	307	297	306	213	215	206	212

Note: Dependent Variable is the perceived vote of the representative: “yea” = 1 and “nay” = 0. Each independent variable is coded 1 or 0. “Self (CC)” is the respondent’s position on the issue in the CES Common Content. “Self” is the respondent’s position on the issue in the Harvard team module and our survey. “Truth” is the representative’s actual vote on the issue. The first three models “(CC)” are run using a voter’s position on the issue as reported in the CES Common Content and their perception of their representative’s vote in the team module. The next four models “(Module)” are run on the respondent’s position reported in the team module and their perception of the representative’s position in the team module. The final four models “(Our)” are run on our survey which, like the CES team modules, asks voters’ own opinion and perception of their representative’s vote in close proximity.

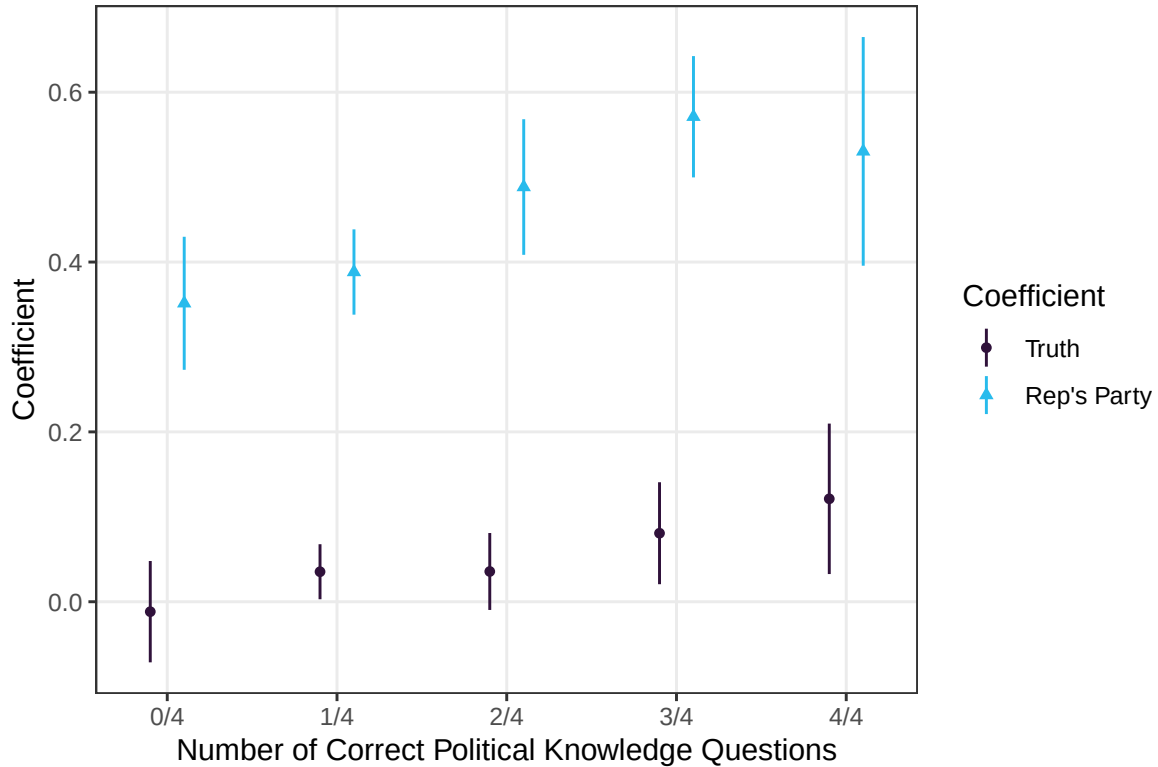
The results are presented in Table B.10. The first three columns report the relationship between the Self and Truth heuristics when the respondents' opinion is asked in the Common Content (as is done in AK). The second four columns report the same relationship but when the voter's opinion is asked in the Team Module (closer proximity to the perception question). Finally, in the last four columns, we report the Self and Truth heuristics from our data.

The results are ultimately not dispositive. When constituent views (Self) are asked in closer proximity to perceptions on the CES, this does not substantially increase the effect of Self or decrease the effect of Truth. A large difference remains with our survey. It is possible that this difference comes from asking the two questions in very close proximity, but we do not have the data to test this.

B.3 Heuristics Analysis by Voter Knowledge, Roll Call and Non-Moderate Members

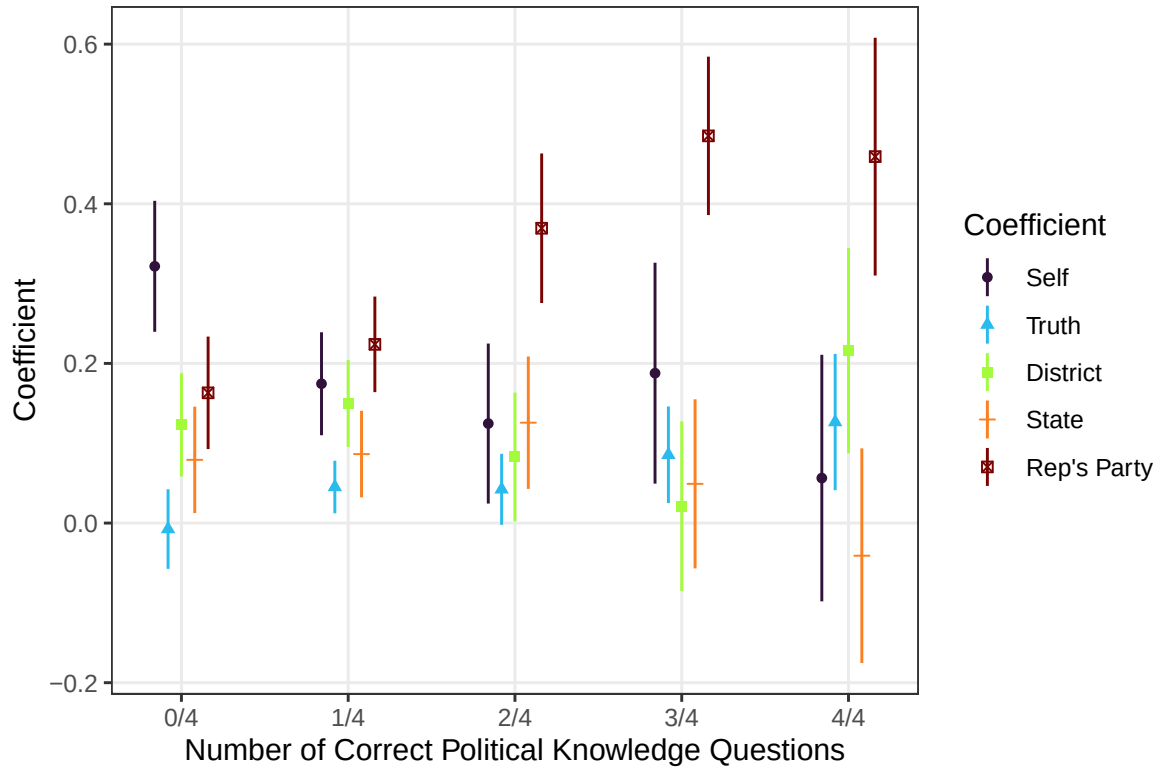
In this appendix we further break down the results from Table 4. The effect of Party is greater for more knowledgeable respondents, as in Dancey and Sheagley (2013). In contrast to last section, because we are no longer directly comparing our results to AK, we return to using both House and Senate data. Also, we use second responses for respondents who initially stated “Not sure.” This follows the specification of Table 4. Although the results vary by roll call, Party is always one of the strongest predictors. Results are similar for constituents of non-moderate members, as defined in Appendix A.2.

Figure B.12: Rep’s Party v. Truth Coefficients by Voter Knowledge



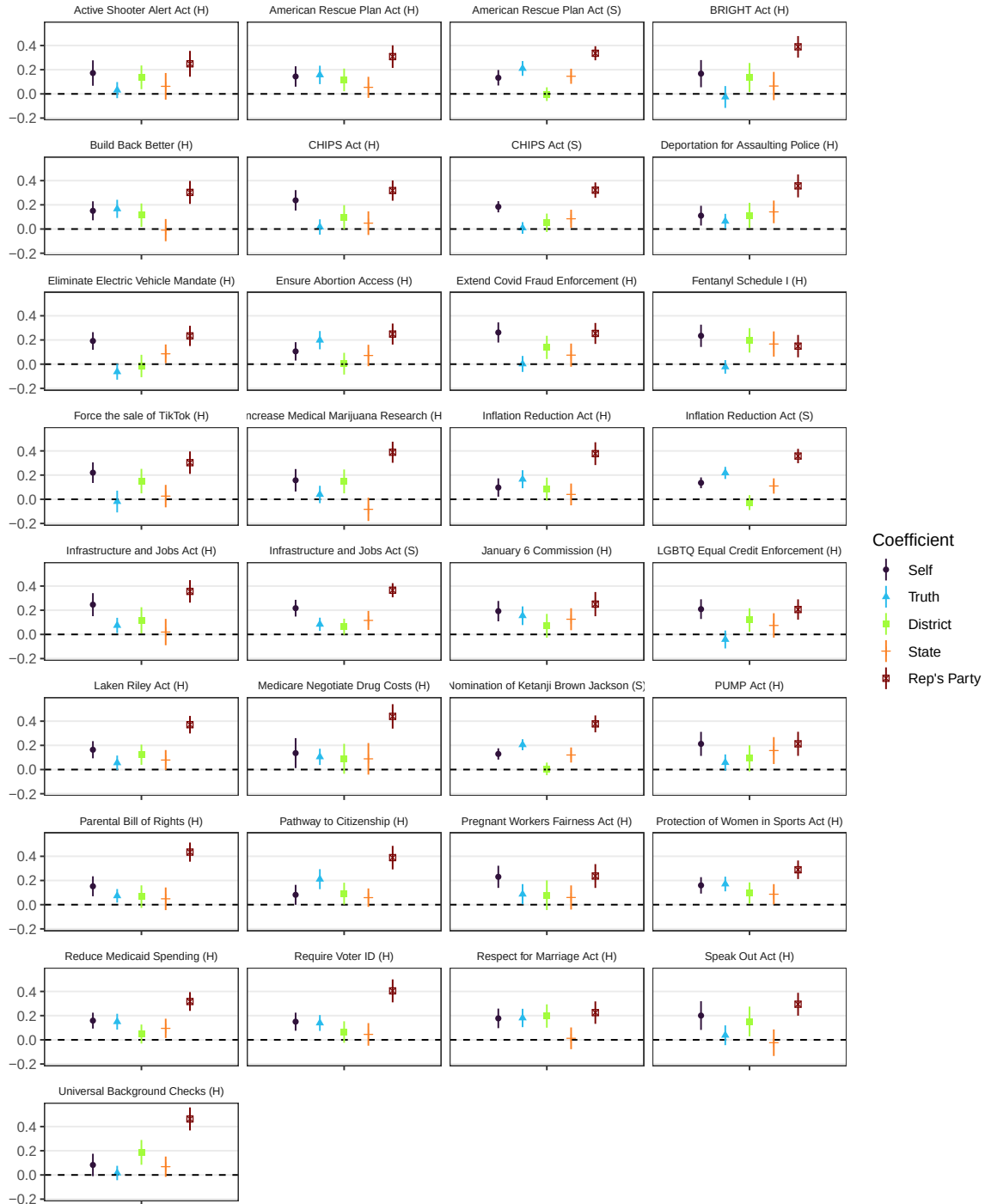
Note: The horizontal axis plots the number of political knowledge questions we asked voters on our second survey. We asked four questions (see Appendix E). On the vertical axis we plot the coefficients for “Rep’s Party” and “Truth” from a regression using only those two variables to predict a voter’s perception of their representative’s vote. Standard errors are clustered by Member of Congress.

Figure B.13: All Table 4 Coefficients by Voter Knowledge



Note: The horizontal axis plots the number of political knowledge questions we asked voters on our second survey. We asked four questions (see Appendix E). On the vertical axis we plot the coefficients for “Self,” “Truth,” “District,” “State,” and “Rep’s Party” from a regression predicting a voter’s perception of their representative’s vote. Standard errors are clustered by Member of Congress.

Figure B.14: All Coefficients From Table 4 For Each Roll Call Vote



Note: In this figure we run the “All” model in Table 4 for all roll call votes in our data separately. Each facet plots the five coefficients. Standard errors are clustered by MC.

Table B.11: The relationship between various possible heuristics and vote predictions (Non-Moderates)

	DV: Perception of MC's vote											
	House						Senate					
	Self	District	State	Rep's Party	Truth	All	Self	District	State	Rep's Party	Truth	All
Intercept	0.376 (0.015)	0.366 (0.012)	0.383 (0.013)	0.320 (0.012)	0.490 (0.010)	0.142 (0.013)	0.348 (0.034)	0.373 (0.040)	0.332 (0.039)	0.273 (0.021)	0.430 (0.015)	0.103 (0.014)
Self	0.331 (0.020)					0.173 (0.018)	0.318 (0.026)					0.167 (0.024)
District		0.366 (0.015)				0.100 (0.015)		0.311 (0.024)				0.024 (0.013)
State			0.336 (0.017)			0.062 (0.015)			0.382 (0.026)			0.106 (0.019)
Rep's Party				0.468 (0.016)		0.329 (0.017)				0.510 (0.012)		0.359 (0.018)
Truth					0.187 (0.013)	0.084 (0.010)					0.292 (0.021)	0.154 (0.019)
Observations	13,766	13,615	13,607	13,622	13,610	13,301	5,248	5,226	5,231	5,228	5,268	5,200
Adj. Rsq.	0.10	0.13	0.11	0.22	0.04	0.28	0.09	0.09	0.14	0.26	0.08	0.32
Number of MCs	285	285	285	285	285	285	42	42	42	42	42	42
Number of Rollcalls	28	28	28	28	28	28	5	5	5	5	5	5

Note: Dependent Variable is the perceived vote of the representative: “yea” = 1 and “nay” = 0. Each independent variable is coded 1 or 0. “Self” is the respondent’s position on the issue. “District” and “State” are the respondent’s perception of whether most people in their district and state support the policy, respectively. “Rep’s Party” is the respondent’s perception of how their representative’s party voted on the issue. “Truth” is the representative’s actual vote on the issue. The first six models are run on votes in the House and the last six models are run on votes in the Senate. Standard errors are clustered by representative. Moderate Members of Congress have been removed for each regression.

C Further analysis of results from Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022)

In this Appendix we replicate Table 2 of Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022), show alternate versions only for representatives who voted with or against their party, and tabulate the rates of correct guessing on each roll call by whether the representative voted for or against their party, as well as breaking out the “not sure” and “missing” responses.

C.1 Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki Table 2

Table C.12: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki Table 2

Outcome: Approval					
	All	Bush 2nd (06-08)	Obama 1st (09-12)	Obama 2nd (13-16)	Trump (17-18)
Actual Issue Agreement	0.23 (0.01)	0.33 (0.01)	0.29 (0.01)	0.06 (0.01)	0.23 (0.03)
Actual Party Agreement	0.22 (0.01)	0.11 (0.01)	0.23 (0.01)	0.23 (0.01)	0.22 (0.02)
Observations	42,559	10,010	23,675	6,286	2,588
Average of Outcome	0.07	0.04	0.08	0.05	0.06
R-squared	0.39	0.36	0.47	0.32	0.46
Number of Clusters	847	482	529	498	434
Outcome: Vote Choice					
	All	Bush 2nd (06,08)	Obama 1st (10,12)	Obama 2nd (14,16)	Trump (18)
Actual Issue Agreement	0.20 (0.01)	0.28 (0.04)	0.24 (0.01)	0.08 (0.02)	0.30 (0.04)
Actual Party Agreement	0.35 (0.01)	0.35 (0.03)	0.30 (0.01)	0.49 (0.02)	0.45 (0.04)
Observations	24,051	1,801	16,946	3,749	1,555
Average of Outcome	0.23	0.24	0.24	0.22	0.18
R-squared	0.48	0.63	0.48	0.53	0.67
Number of Clusters	786	411	484	445	368

C.2 Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki Table 2 Only for Representatives Who Vote With Their Party

Table C.13: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki Table 2 Only for Representatives Who Vote With Their Party

Outcome: Approval					
	All	Bush 2nd (06-08)	Obama 1st (09-12)	Obama 2nd (13-16)	Trump (17-18)
Actual Issue Agreement	0.22 (0.01)	0.30 (0.01)	0.28 (0.01)	0.06 (0.01)	0.24 (0.02)
Actual Party Agreement	0.21 (0.01)	0.08 (0.01)	0.23 (0.01)	0.22 (0.01)	0.21 (0.02)
Observations	42,139	9,925	23,597	6,029	2,588
Average of Outcome	0.07	0.04	0.08	0.05	0.06
R-squared	0.39	0.36	0.47	0.32	0.47
Number of Clusters	845	480	528	498	434
Outcome: Vote Choice					
	All	Bush 2nd (06,08)	Obama 1st (10,12)	Obama 2nd (14,16)	Trump (18)
Actual Issue Agreement	0.20 (0.01)	0.29 (0.03)	0.24 (0.01)	0.09 (0.02)	0.29 (0.03)
Actual Party Agreement	0.34 (0.01)	0.31 (0.03)	0.29 (0.01)	0.49 (0.02)	0.44 (0.04)
Observations	23,928	1,789	16,886	3,698	1,555
Average of Outcome	0.23	0.24	0.24	0.22	0.18
R-squared	0.49	0.63	0.48	0.53	0.68
Number of Clusters	783	409	482	443	368

C.3 Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki Table 2 Only for Representatives Who Vote Against Their Party

Table C.14: Replicating Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki Table 2 When Representative Votes AGAINST Their Party

Outcome: Approval					
	All	Bush 2nd (06-08)	Obama 1st (09-12)	Obama 2nd (13-16)	Trump (17-18)
Actual Issue Agreement	-0.05 (0.01)	-0.08 (0.02)	-0.05 (0.02)	0.06 (0.03)	-0.10 (0.03)
Actual Party Agreement	0.20 (0.01)	0.13 (0.02)	0.25 (0.02)	0.16 (0.03)	0.23 (0.04)
Observations	9,447	3,379	3,605	1,554	909
Average of Outcome	0.07	0.04	0.08	0.05	0.06
R-squared	0.29	0.25	0.32	0.39	0.52
Number of Clusters	571	204	137	287	219
Outcome: Vote Choice					
	All	Bush 2nd (06,08)	Obama 1st (10,12)	Obama 2nd (14,16)	Trump (18)
Actual Issue Agreement	-0.05 (0.01)	-0.07 (0.04)	-0.05 (0.02)	0.00 (0.04)	-0.06 (0.04)
Actual Party Agreement	0.38 (0.03)	0.33 (0.06)	0.30 (0.05)	0.51 (0.04)	0.50 (0.05)
Observations	4,495	672	2,073	977	773
Average of Outcome	0.23	0.24	0.24	0.22	0.18
R-squared	0.5	0.6	0.45	0.6	0.65
Number of Clusters	485	169	104	228	180

C.4 Knowledge of Roll Calls and Not Sure / Missing Responses in AK Data

In Table C.15 we tabulate correct guesses about roll call votes in the AK data by whether legislators voted with or against their party, as well as breaking out respondents who were not sure or did not answer each question.

Table C.15: Voters' Knowledge of Their Legislator's Vote

Issue	Legislator voted with their Party	Legislator voted against their Party	Not Sure / Missing
	Correct	Correct	
ACESA	88%	34%	44%
AHCA	81%	35%	33%
ARRA	88%	40%	38%
Ban Partial Birth Abortion	81%	54%	32%
Budget Bipartisan	65%	36%	39%
CAFTA	68%	49%	47%
Cut Capital Gains Tax	81%	80%	35%
Cut Food Stamps	57%	48%	32%
Dodd-Frank Wall Street Reform	93%	11%	44%
Education To States	65%	31%	29%
End DADT	81%	26%	57%
FISA	91%	24%	52%
Foreclosure Assistance	62%	62%	49%
Freedom Act	58%	43%	22%
Fund Stem Cell Research	75%	55%	31%
Highway Funding	74%	42%	31%
Immigration Ryan	75%	43%	40%
Kate's Law	76%	52%	42%
Ledbetter Fair Pay Act	85%	14%	55%
Medicare Reform	58%	36%	25%
PPACA	92%	56%	34%
Repeal ACA 2012	77%	34%	0%
Repeal ACA 2015	73%	15%	18%
Ryan Budget	67%	48%	0%
SCHIP 2007	94%	38%	47%
SCHIP 2009	83%	55%	46%
Simpson Bowles Amendment	73%	30%	0%
TAA	30%	71%	20%
TPA	45%	69%	38%
Tax Cuts and Jobs Act	82%	17%	31%
Violence Against Women	66%	82%	16%
Withdraw Iraq 2007	90%	50%	46%
Withdraw Iraq 2008	86%	13%	49%
Withhold Sanctuary Funding	84%	12%	30%

C.5 Correct and Not Sure / Missing Responses in AK Data by Issue and Party

Table C.16: Voters' Knowledge of Their Legislator's Vote by Party

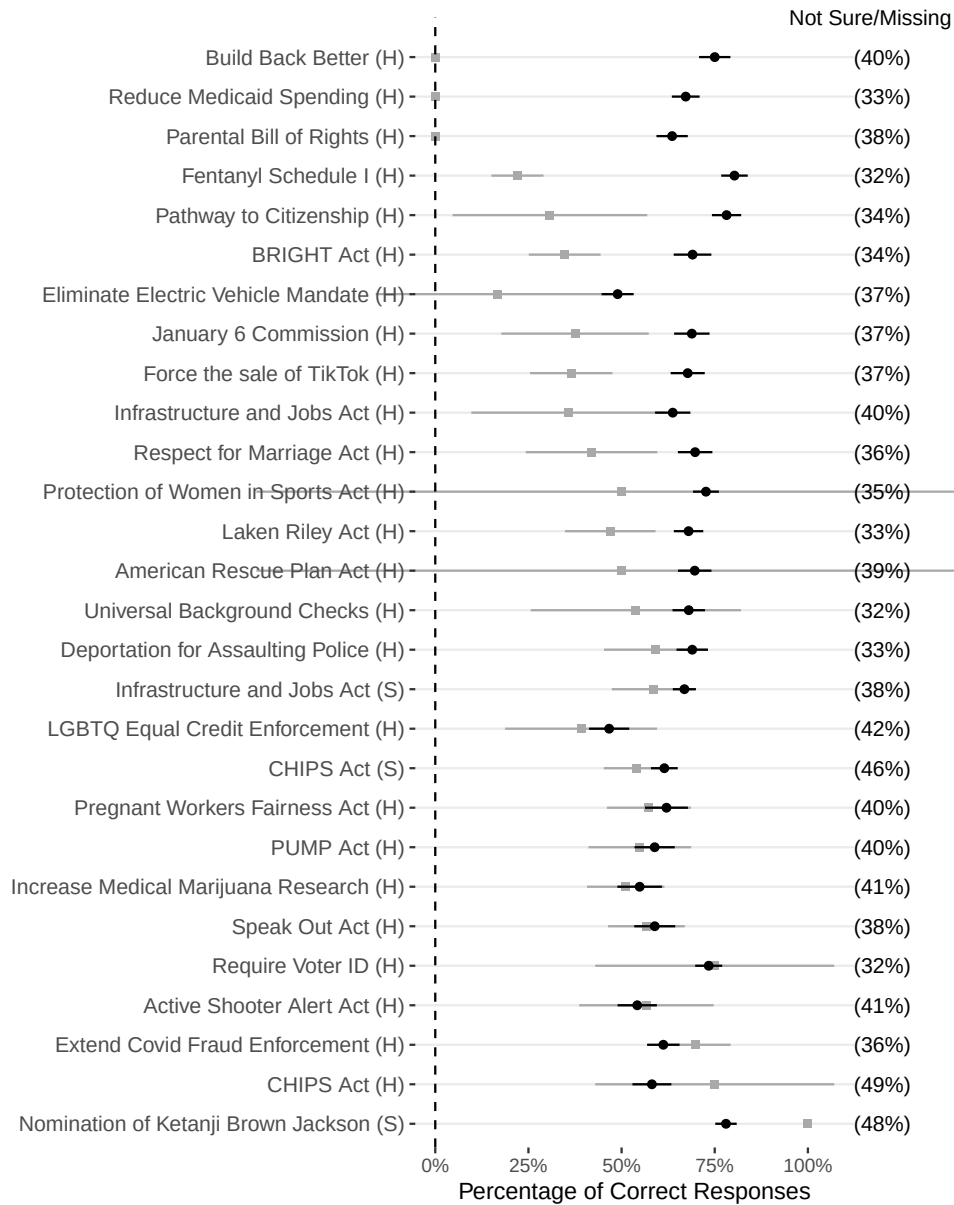
Issue	Republicans		Democrats		Not Sure / Missing
	Legislator voted with their Party	Legislator voted against their Party	Legislator voted with their Party	Legislator voted against their Party	
	Correct	Correct	Correct	Correct	
ACESA	83%	52%	94%	29%	44%
AHCA	79%	35%	83%	-	33%
ARRA	83%	-	93%	40%	38%
Ban Partial Birth Abortion	83%	0%	77%	56%	32%
Budget Bipartisan	78%	22%	45%	52%	39%
CAFTA	79%	47%	51%	50%	47%
Cut Capital Gains Tax	86%	-	74%	80%	35%
Cut Food Stamps	55%	48%	59%	-	32%
Dodd-Frank Wall Street Reform	89%	43%	96%	3%	44%
Education To States	61%	31%	69%	-	29%
End DADT	83%	16%	80%	39%	57%
FISA	91%	17%	90%	24%	52%
Foreclosure Assistance	39%	74%	81%	22%	49%
Freedom Act	53%	46%	64%	40%	22%
Fund Stem Cell Research	74%	59%	77%	38%	31%
Highway Funding	64%	42%	83%	-	31%
Immigration Ryan	68%	43%	79%	-	40%
Kate's Law	91%	0%	52%	57%	42%
Ledbetter Fair Pay Act	76%	8%	91%	18%	55%
Medicare Reform	48%	38%	68%	18%	25%
PPACA	89%	-	94%	56%	34%
Repeal ACA 2012	69%	-	90%	34%	0%
Repeal ACA 2015	76%	15%	70%	-	18%
Ryan Budget	60%	48%	79%	-	0%
SCHIP 2007	91%	42%	96%	14%	47%
SCHIP 2009	56%	57%	95%	14%	46%
Simpson Bowles Amendment	76%	26%	68%	33%	0%
TAA	41%	65%	19%	82%	20%
TPA	53%	61%	36%	80%	38%
Tax Cuts and Jobs Act	86%	17%	76%	-	31%
Violence Against Women	27%	82%	91%	-	16%
Withdraw Iraq 2007	91%	44%	89%	53%	46%
Withdraw Iraq 2008	82%	25%	91%	13%	49%
Withhold Sanctuary Funding	85%	14%	84%	7%	30%

D Further results from the original data collection

D.1 Roll call vote knowledge in the original data collection

Figure D.15 shows the percent of respondents who identified their representative’s position on each roll call by whether the representative voted with their party using our original data, in the same way that Figure 1 does this with the AK data. Table D.17 shows the data underlying this Figure. We exclude votes for which we have one or zero respondents: American Rescue Plan Act (S), Inflation Reduction Act (H), Inflation Reduction Act (S), Ensure Abortion Access (H), and Medicare Negotiate Drug Costs (H).

Figure D.15: Percent of Correct Perceptions by whether a Representative votes With or Against their Party (Our Data)



Note: The horizontal axis plots the percent of correct perceptions on each roll call vote listed on the left vertical axis. The percentage of correct perceptions is only among respondents who responded other than “Not Sure.” Black circles represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted with their party’s majority, and grey squares represent cases in which a voter’s representative voted against their party’s majority. The percentage of respondents who answered “Not Sure” or did not provide a prediction for each condition is reported in the parentheses on the right vertical axis. Lines represent 95% confidence intervals.

Table D.17: Percent of Correct Perceptions by whether a Representative votes With or Against their Party (Our Data)

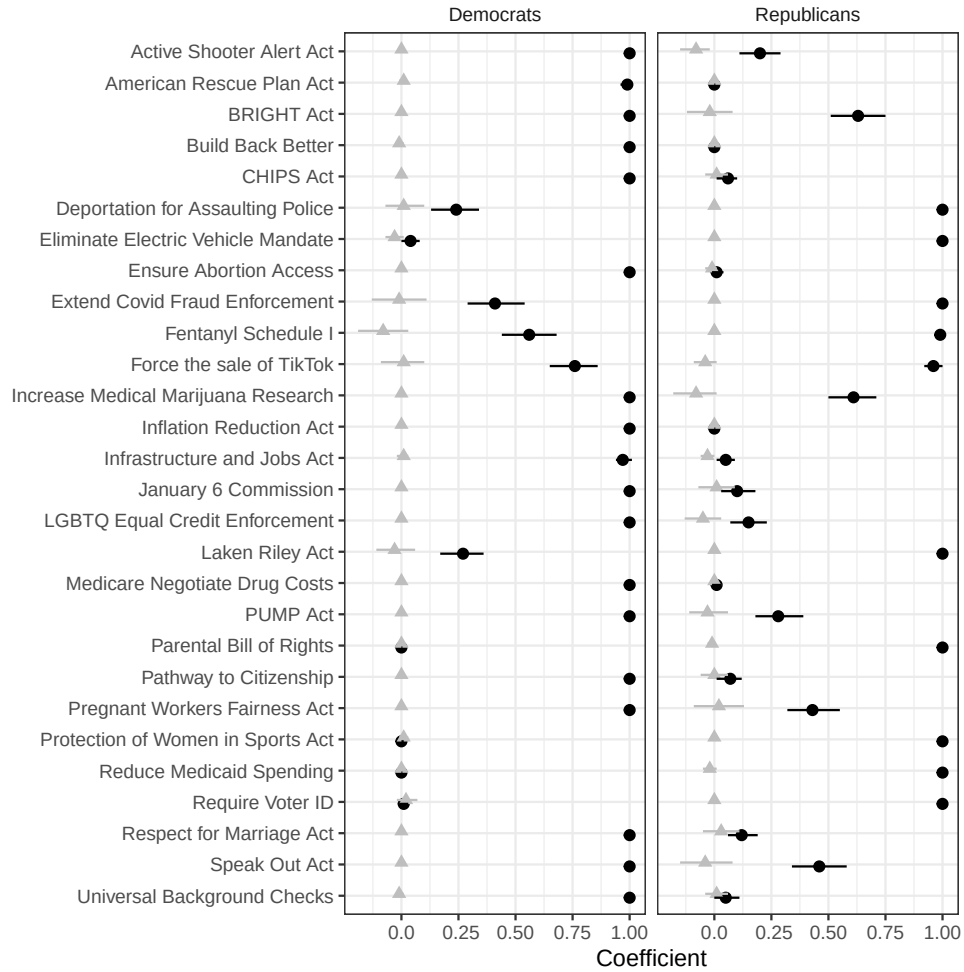
Issue	Legislator voted with their Party	Legislator voted against their Party	Not Sure / NA
Active Shooter Alert Act (H)	54.20% (2.69%)	56.67% (9.20%)	41.13%
American Rescue Plan Act (H)	69.63% (2.29%)	50.00% (50.00%)	39.25%
BRIGHT Act (H)	69.04% (2.58%)	34.74% (4.91%)	33.97%
Build Back Better (H)	75.00% (2.15%)	0.00% (0.00%)	40.23%
CHIPS Act (H)	58.14% (2.66%)	75.00% (16.37%)	48.99%
CHIPS Act (S)	61.47% (1.83%)	53.97% (4.46%)	45.97%
Deportation for Assaulting Police (H)	68.97% (2.15%)	59.18% (7.09%)	33.03%
Eliminate Electric Vehicle Mandate (H)	48.94% (2.20%)	16.67% (16.67%)	37.13%
Extend Covid Fraud Enforcement (H)	61.20% (2.22%)	69.89% (4.78%)	35.61%
Fentanyl Schedule I (H)	80.29% (1.81%)	22.06% (3.57%)	31.86%
Force the sale of TikTok (H)	67.74% (2.33%)	36.49% (5.63%)	37.24%
Increase Medical Marijuana Research (H)	54.85% (3.05%)	51.11% (5.30%)	41.41%
Infrastructure and Jobs Act (H)	63.73% (2.42%)	35.71% (13.29%)	40.26%
Infrastructure and Jobs Act (S)	66.86% (1.58%)	58.44% (5.65%)	37.60%
January 6 Commission (H)	68.85% (2.42%)	37.50% (10.09%)	36.79%
LGBTQ Equal Credit Enforcement (H)	46.67% (2.75%)	39.13% (10.41%)	42.41%
Laken Riley Act (H)	67.97% (2.02%)	46.97% (6.19%)	32.78%
Nomination of Ketanji Brown Jackson (S)	78.02% (1.47%)	100.00% (0.00%)	48.18%
PUMP Act (H)	58.88% (2.75%)	54.90% (7.04%)	40.48%
Parental Bill of Rights (H)	63.56% (2.14%)	0.00% (0.00%)	38.45%
Pathway to Citizenship (H)	78.17% (2.00%)	30.77% (13.32%)	34.18%
Pregnant Workers Fairness Act (H)	62.04% (2.94%)	57.33% (5.75%)	40.24%
Protection of Women in Sports Act (H)	72.64% (1.77%)	50.00% (50.00%)	35.16%
Reduce Medicaid Spending (H)	67.21% (1.90%)	0.00% (0.00%)	32.97%
Require Voter ID (H)	73.38% (1.85%)	75.00% (16.37%)	31.56%
Respect for Marriage Act (H)	69.74% (2.36%)	41.94% (9.01%)	35.78%
Speak Out Act (H)	58.90% (2.80%)	56.67% (5.25%)	37.56%
Universal Background Checks (H)	68.03% (2.22%)	53.85% (14.39%)	32.24%

Note: Values in columns two and three report the percentage of respondents who correctly identified the vote of their legislator when their legislator voted with and against the majority of their party, respectively. Standard errors are reported in parentheses to the right. For each vote, the percent of respondents who either were unsure or did not provide a guess is reported in the fourth column. These numbers underlie Figure D.15.

D.2 Knowledge of roll call votes accounting for party in the original data collection

Our data allows us to perform the same analysis that underlies Figure 2. To preserve direct comparability of our analysis with the AK analysis, we only look at votes that took place in the House of Representatives, and voters' perception of their House member's vote. The results are shown in Figure D.16.

Figure D.16: The relationship between perceptions and actual votes, after accounting for representative partisanship (Our Data)



Note: The circular dots represent the relationship between partisanship and a “yea” vote, with the votes of Democratic members of Congress represented in the left panel and the votes of Republican members in the right panel, respectively. The gray triangles represent the predictive power of voter perceptions on the roll call vote once party is accounted for.

Table D.18: Table for Figure D.16

Issue	Dem (β_4)	PerceptionXDem (β_2)	Rep (β_3)	PerceptionXRep (β_1)	Rsq.	Obs.	Clusters
Active Shooter Alert Act	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.200 (0.045)	-0.080 (0.032)	0.863	614	244
American Rescue Plan Act	0.990 (0.012)	0.010 (0.008)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.994	661	252
BRIGHT Act	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.630 (0.061)	-0.020 (0.052)	0.828	611	247
Build Back Better	1.000 (0.000)	-0.010 (0.008)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.994	678	259
CHIPS Act	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.060 (0.024)	0.010 (0.026)	0.943	678	259
Deportation for Assaulting Police	0.240 (0.052)	0.010 (0.043)	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.884	731	295
Eliminate Electric Vehicle Mandate	0.040 (0.022)	-0.030 (0.020)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.980	805	309
Ensure Abortion Access	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.010 (0.012)	-0.010 (0.012)	0.991	679	260
Extend Covid Fraud Enforcement	0.410 (0.064)	-0.010 (0.061)	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.858	853	346
Fentanyl Schedule I	0.560 (0.062)	-0.080 (0.058)	0.990 (0.008)	-0.000 (0.002)	0.859	866	353
Force the sale of TikTok	0.760 (0.053)	0.010 (0.049)	0.960 (0.020)	-0.040 (0.025)	0.870	726	292
Increase Medical Marijuana Research	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.610 (0.055)	-0.080 (0.050)	0.817	594	238
Inflation Reduction Act	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	1.000	681	261
Infrastructure and Jobs Act	0.970 (0.019)	0.010 (0.012)	0.050 (0.022)	-0.030 (0.015)	0.942	681	260
January 6 Commission	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.100 (0.037)	0.010 (0.040)	0.888	601	240
LGBTQ Equal Credit Enforcement	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.150 (0.040)	-0.050 (0.041)	0.882	592	239
Laken Riley Act	0.270 (0.049)	-0.030 (0.042)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.883	861	348
Medicare Negotiate Drug Costs	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.010 (0.010)	-0.000 (0.002)	0.993	527	206
PUMP Act	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.280 (0.055)	-0.030 (0.045)	0.809	608	241
Parental Bill of Rights	0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.010 (0.008)	0.991	797	311
Pathway to Citizenship	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.070 (0.027)	-0.000 (0.032)	0.939	640	248
Pregnant Workers Fairness Act	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.430 (0.061)	0.020 (0.054)	0.807	568	229
Protection of Women in Sports Act	0.000 (0.004)	0.010 (0.009)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.992	949	366
Reduce Medicaid Spending	-0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.020 (0.015)	0.988	880	357
Require Voter ID	0.010 (0.010)	0.020 (0.024)	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.980	817	317
Respect for Marriage Act	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.120 (0.032)	0.030 (0.042)	0.872	623	250
Speak Out Act	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.460 (0.060)	-0.040 (0.057)	0.793	614	250
Universal Background Checks	1.000 (0.000)	-0.010 (0.008)	0.050 (0.026)	0.010 (0.026)	0.941	650	253

Note: Each row reports the coefficients from a regression of the form of Formula 1 run on the data for each roll call vote. Standard errors are reported in parentheses to the right of the coefficient estimate. These numbers underlie Figure D.16

D.3 Knowledge of the parties' positions

Table D.19: Voters' Knowledge of Each Party's Position

Party Line Votes	Republican Position			Democratic Position		
	Voter Party			Voter Party		
	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.	Rep.	Ind.	Dem.
Require Voter ID	80%	76%	80%	66%	59%	57%
Eliminate Electric Vehicle Mandate	57%	53%	52%	57%	47%	45%
Protection of Women in Sports Act	75%	72%	70%	65%	64%	63%
Parental Bill of Rights	76%	71%	66%	57%	49%	46%
Inflation Reduction Act	60%	64%	75%	72%	79%	82%
Ensure Abortion Access	65%	72%	71%	61%	60%	75%
American Rescue Plan Act	58%	61%	68%	74%	79%	84%
Build Back Better	66%	71%	82%	74%	78%	86%
Universal Background Checks	45%	59%	70%	77%	78%	89%
Pathway to Citizenship	64%	74%	78%	74%	73%	84%
Medicare Negotiate Drug Costs	27%	50%	65%	72%	77%	84%
Reduce Medicaid Spending	69%	67%	68%	58%	65%	71%
Democrat Consensus Votes						
CHIPS Act	44%	48%	52%	67%	67%	68%
Infrastructure and Jobs Act	30%	52%	63%	68%	78%	86%
Nomination of Ketanji Brown Jackson	68%	67%	72%	66%	72%	78%
Pregnant Workers Fairness Act	34%	57%	65%	66%	60%	77%
PUMP Act	38%	52%	68%	69%	66%	75%
LGBTQ Equal Credit Enforcement	51%	51%	52%	53%	43%	42%
Respect for Marriage Act	59%	68%	69%	65%	66%	74%
January 6 Commission	55%	64%	73%	61%	66%	79%
Increase Medical Marijuana Research	53%	34%	37%	66%	61%	67%
Active Shooter Alert Act	34%	52%	55%	59%	61%	81%
Speak Out Act	34%	57%	64%	61%	67%	73%
BRIGHT Act	62%	51%	47%	69%	69%	73%
Republican Consensus Votes						
Extend Covid Fraud Enforcement	73%	70%	67%	51%	42%	32%
Fentanyl Schedule I	77%	70%	77%	55%	64%	76%
Laken Riley Act	76%	71%	74%	57%	56%	58%
Deportation for Assaulting Police	77%	72%	74%	57%	52%	50%
Neither Party Line Vote						
Force the sale of TikTok	72%	61%	65%	47%	51%	48%

Note: Percentages in each column represent the fraction of respondents who correctly identified the position of each party. The first three columns show the correct percentage for the Republican position on each vote, and the second three columns show the correct percentage for the Democratic position. Percentages of correct perceptions are broken down by respondent self-reported partisanship. The party's position on each issue is defined as the side that the majority of representatives of that party voted for.

D.4 Perceptions of party unity

Table D.20: Voters’ Perceptions of how often Representatives Vote with Their Party

Issue	How Often Voters Predicted Their Representative Voted with the Majority of Their Party	
	House	Senate
Universal Background Checks	86%	-
Medicare Negotiate Drug Costs	86%	-
Require Voter ID	84%	-
Pathway to Citizenship	83%	-
Parental Bill of Rights	83%	-
Inflation Reduction Act	82%	81%
American Rescue Plan Act	81%	79%
CHIPS Act	80%	78%
Infrastructure and Jobs Act	80%	80%
Build Back Better	80%	-
Laken Riley Act	79%	-
Fentanyl Schedule I	78%	-
Deportation for Assaulting Police	78%	-
Protection of Women in Sports Act	77%	-
Extend Covid Fraud Enforcement	77%	-
BRIGHT Act	77%	-
Force the sale of TikTok	74%	-
Reduce Medicaid Spending	73%	-
Pregnant Workers Fairness Act	73%	-
PUMP Act	73%	-
January 6 Commission	73%	-
Increase Medical Marijuana Research	73%	-
Active Shooter Alert Act	73%	-
Speak Out Act	73%	-
Ensure Abortion Access	71%	-
Eliminate Electric Vehicle Mandate	71%	-
Respect for Marriage Act	71%	-
LGBTQ Equal Credit Enforcement	67%	-
Nomination of Ketanji Brown Jackson	-	82%

Note: Values represent the percent of respondents who gave the same response for their representative that they gave for their representative’s party. Missing values indicate that the vote did not take place in that chamber or we did not ask respondents about their Senators’ positions.

D.5 Knowledge of whether representative voted

In our surveys we asked respondents about the votes of their representative even if that particular representative did not vote on that particular roll call. We offered “Not Sure” and “Not Applicable” options for these cases. Hence we can look at whether respondents know whether their representative voted on particular roll

calls.

Table D.21 shows roll calls by whether they occurred in the House or the Senate⁵. It shows that people are no more likely to say “not sure” when asked about a House member’s vote on a roll call that occurred only in the Senate, or a Senator’s vote on a roll call that occurred only in the House. Table D.22 shows that people are only a little more likely to say “not sure” when their representative was not yet elected at the time of a roll call vote. In both cases, negligible numbers of respondents say “not applicable.”

Table D.21: Identification of Roll Calls that Occurred in a Single Chamber

	Senate		House	
	Representative	Senator	Representative	Senator
For	28%	30%	41%	43%
Against	22%	24%	26%	27%
Not Sure	49%	45%	33%	30%
Not Applicable	1%	1%	0%	0%

Note: Values represent the percent of each response when respondents were asked how they thought their representatives voted on each issue. The first two columns present responses for votes that only took place in the Senate, meaning Representatives could not have cast a vote. The last two columns present response patterns for votes that only took place in the House, meaning Senators could not have cast a vote. The correct response for all Representatives on Senate-only votes and Senators on House-only votes is “Not Applicable.”

Table D.22: Identification of Roll Calls when a Representative Did Not Cast a Vote

	Senate		House	
	Not Present	Present	Not Present	Present
For	28%	31%	42%	44%
Against	23%	24%	26%	25%
Not Sure	49%	44%	32%	32%
Not Applicable	1%	1%	0%	0%

Note: Values represent the percent of each response when voters were asked how they thought their representatives voted on each issue. “Present” indicates that the representative a respondent was asked about on the survey was in Congress and cast a vote, and “Not Present” indicates a representative did not cast a vote, either because they were not serving in Congress at the time of the vote or otherwise failed to cast a vote. The correct response for all votes in “Not Present” columns is “Not Applicable.”

⁵We asked for the positions of Senators only on Survey 1.

E Comparison of political knowledge across surveys

Table E.23 compares political knowledge across the second survey in our original data collection (respondents provided by Cint Theorem), the American National Election Studies (considered a standard in political science), and the Cooperative Election Study (the data underlying Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022), respondents provided by YouGov).

Table E.23: Comparison of Political Knowledge with ANES and CES

Question	Our Survey (2025)	ANES (2024)	ANES (2020)	CES (2024)	CES (2020)	CES (2008)
House Majority	78%	65%	69%	61%	64%	69%
Senate Term	29%	41%	42%	-	-	-
Mike Johnson	26%	34%	-	-	-	-
John Roberts	15%	16%	21%	-	-	-
Senate Majority	-	62%	79%	55%	70%	67%
Nancy Pelosi	-	-	67%	-	-	-

Note: The percentages in each column represent the fraction of all respondents who correctly answered each question on our survey and the ANES. Individuals were asked which political position Chief Justice of the Supreme Court John Roberts and Speaker of the House Mike Johnson held. They were also asked the length of a term Senators are elected to as well as which party holds a majority in the House.

F Data underlying figures in the main text

F.1 Data underlying Figure 1

Table F.24: Percent of Correct Perceptions by whether a Representative votes With or Against their Party

Issue	Legislator voted with their Party	Legislator voted against their Party	Not Sure / NA
ACESA	88.46% (0.51%)	33.53% (2.09%)	43.74%
AHCA	81.03% (0.90%)	34.72% (5.65%)	33.47%
ARRA	88.48% (0.46%)	39.74% (5.58%)	37.70%
Ban Partial Birth Abortion	80.89% (2.51%)	53.66% (7.88%)	32.47%
Budget Bipartisan	64.71% (1.69%)	36.43% (2.45%)	39.27%
CAFTA	67.52% (3.07%)	48.57% (8.57%)	46.63%
Cut Capital Gains Tax	81.41% (2.21%)	80.00% (10.69%)	35.25%
Cut Food Stamps	56.72% (1.61%)	48.15% (9.80%)	31.74%
Dodd-Frank Wall Street Reform	92.64% (0.67%)	11.11% (3.73%)	43.58%
Education To States	64.76% (1.60%)	31.43% (3.94%)	28.70%
End DADT	81.14% (1.17%)	25.68% (5.11%)	57.40%
FISA	90.61% (0.44%)	23.58% (1.29%)	52.50%
Foreclosure Assistance	61.86% (1.60%)	61.84% (5.61%)	48.74%
Freedom Act	57.88% (1.63%)	43.30% (3.32%)	21.84%
Fund Stem Cell Research	75.48% (2.45%)	54.76% (7.77%)	30.57%
Highway Funding	73.83% (1.06%)	41.94% (2.96%)	31.16%
Immigration Ryan	74.85% (1.50%)	42.52% (2.85%)	40.42%
Kate's Law	75.61% (1.87%)	51.61% (9.12%)	41.91%
Ledbetter Fair Pay Act	84.89% (0.76%)	13.79% (6.52%)	54.80%
Medicare Reform	57.74% (1.56%)	35.96% (5.12%)	24.81%
PPACA	91.68% (0.40%)	55.97% (2.56%)	34.17%
Repeal ACA 2012	76.91% (0.32%)	34.34% (3.70%)	0.00%
Repeal ACA 2015	73.17% (0.91%)	15.00% (8.19%)	18.21%
Ryan Budget	66.99% (0.36%)	48.32% (2.29%)	0.00%
SCHIP 2007	94.26% (0.31%)	38.15% (1.85%)	46.88%
SCHIP 2009	82.64% (0.77%)	54.83% (3.10%)	46.27%
Simpson Bowles Amendment	73.16% (0.35%)	29.78% (1.14%)	0.00%
TAA	30.09% (1.62%)	70.83% (2.40%)	20.32%
TPA	45.43% (1.42%)	68.63% (2.82%)	38.22%
Tax Cuts and Jobs Act	81.60% (1.07%)	16.67% (6.92%)	31.00%
Violence Against Women	65.89% (1.51%)	82.25% (2.52%)	15.91%
Withdraw Iraq 2007	90.50% (0.41%)	50.00% (4.79%)	45.75%
Withdraw Iraq 2008	85.65% (1.19%)	13.43% (2.96%)	49.47%
Withhold Sanctuary Funding	84.29% (0.82%)	11.63% (4.95%)	30.46%

Note: Values in columns two and three report the percentage of respondents who correctly identified the vote of their legislator when their legislator voted with and against the majority of their party, respectively. Standard errors are reported in parentheses to the right. For each vote, the percent of respondents who either were unsure or did not provide a guess is reported in the fourth column. These numbers underlie Figure 1.

F.2 Data underlying Figure 2

Table F.25: Table for Figure 2

Issue	Dem (β_4)	PerceptionXDem (β_2)	Rep (β_3)	PerceptionXRep (β_1)	Rsqr.	Obs.	Clusters
ACESA	0.516 (0.055)	0.351 (0.046)	0.030 (0.013)	0.107 (0.041)	0.809	4422	427
AHCA	0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.891 (0.027)	0.052 (0.016)	0.932	1970	421
ARRA	0.865 (0.050)	0.117 (0.043)	-0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.973	4871	425
Ban 20wk Abortion	0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	1.000	1166	392
Ban Partial Birth Abortion	0.218 (0.058)	0.332 (0.100)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.014 (0.010)	0.878	287	194
Budget Bipartisan	0.378 (0.050)	-0.024 (0.045)	0.707 (0.048)	-0.004 (0.041)	0.610	1189	381
CAFTA	0.143 (0.066)	0.005 (0.062)	0.769 (0.075)	0.147 (0.077)	0.809	269	196
CHOICE	-0.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.986 (0.014)	0.014 (0.014)	0.996	503	285
Cut Capital Gains Tax	0.033 (0.024)	0.240 (0.076)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.944	327	222
Cut Food Stamps	-0.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.946 (0.019)	0.006 (0.015)	0.949	972	362
Dodd-Frank Wall Street Reform	0.951 (0.034)	-0.013 (0.036)	0.014 (0.009)	0.061 (0.054)	0.925	1608	400
Education To States	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.792 (0.036)	-0.064 (0.034)	0.882	1031	380
End DADT	0.914 (0.040)	0.050 (0.039)	0.081 (0.024)	-0.005 (0.026)	0.898	1198	382
FISA	0.356 (0.035)	0.250 (0.033)	0.988 (0.012)	0.006 (0.006)	0.832	5497	418
Foreclosure Assistance	0.960 (0.032)	0.007 (0.026)	0.082 (0.026)	0.061 (0.033)	0.878	999	360
Freedom Act	0.791 (0.042)	0.028 (0.033)	0.803 (0.036)	-0.009 (0.032)	0.803	1138	394
Fund Stem Cell Research	0.914 (0.048)	0.042 (0.054)	0.101 (0.031)	0.212 (0.068)	0.806	352	237
Highway Funding	1.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.720 (0.037)	0.044 (0.025)	0.880	2006	419
Immigration Ryan	0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.453 (0.046)	0.118 (0.039)	0.534	1144	382
Kate's Law	0.101 (0.031)	0.037 (0.034)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.010 (0.010)	0.921	560	306
Ledbetter Fair Pay Act	0.976 (0.018)	0.013 (0.016)	0.016 (0.009)	-0.011 (0.007)	0.978	2239	420
Medicare Reform	0.987 (0.009)	-0.014 (0.017)	0.901 (0.021)	-0.061 (0.022)	0.923	1097	394
PPACA	0.433 (0.059)	0.502 (0.051)	-0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.903	5198	430
Repeal ACA 2012	0.018 (0.009)	0.060 (0.026)	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.986	17616	395
Repeal ACA 2015	0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.991 (0.007)	-0.007 (0.005)	0.985	2376	421
Ryan Budget	-0.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.000)	0.948 (0.017)	0.014 (0.005)	0.956	17194	386
SCHIP 2007	0.899 (0.047)	0.076 (0.041)	0.142 (0.023)	0.409 (0.036)	0.871	6266	422
SCHIP 2009	0.976 (0.017)	0.017 (0.012)	0.197 (0.035)	0.096 (0.036)	0.896	2667	420
Simpson Bowles Amendment	0.132 (0.029)	0.002 (0.009)	0.068 (0.017)	0.009 (0.009)	0.104	17279	387
TAA	0.242 (0.051)	0.006 (0.045)	0.328 (0.043)	0.056 (0.040)	0.322	1161	392
TPA	0.098 (0.026)	0.100 (0.029)	0.762 (0.036)	0.088 (0.030)	0.725	1497	418
Tax Cuts and Jobs Act	0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.955 (0.020)	0.007 (0.015)	0.961	1340	391
Violence Against Women	1.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.000)	0.279 (0.045)	0.124 (0.044)	0.827	1216	388
Withdraw Iraq 2007	0.859 (0.045)	0.124 (0.042)	0.007 (0.004)	0.048 (0.032)	0.957	5287	421
Withdraw Iraq 2008	0.685 (0.079)	0.072 (0.074)	0.008 (0.006)	0.004 (0.007)	0.743	1005	360
Withhold Sanctuary Funding	0.017 (0.010)	-0.010 (0.008)	0.976 (0.012)	-0.003 (0.010)	0.961	2016	414

Note: Each row reports the coefficients from a regression of the form of Formula 1 run on the data for each roll call vote. Standard errors are reported in parentheses to the right of the coefficient estimate. These numbers underlie Figure 2

G Data sources

G.1 Survey Questions

Table G.26: Roll Call Votes and Survey Wording from Original Surveys

Cong-Chamb.	Date	Description	Wording	Congress Link
116-House	2019-12-12	Medicare Negotiate Drug Costs	A bill to require the Department of Health and Human Services (HHS) to negotiate prices for certain drugs. (Under current law, HHS may not negotiate the prices of covered drugs under the Medicare prescription drug benefit.)	https://www.congress.gov/bill/116th-congress/house-bill/3
117-Senate	2021-03-06	American Rescue Plan Act	A bill to authorize spending up to \$1.9 trillion for COVID relief from March 2021 through September 2021, including extension of unemployment benefits through September 2021, and emergency funding to state and local governments for the fiscal year.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/1319
117-House	2021-03-10	American Rescue Plan Act	A bill to authorize spending up to \$1.9 trillion for COVID relief from March 2021 through September 2021, including extension of unemployment benefits through September 2021, and emergency funding to state and local governments for the fiscal year.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/1319
117-House	2021-03-11	Universal Background Checks	A bill to prohibit firearm transfers between private parties unless a licensed gun dealer, manufacturer, or importer first takes possession of the firearm to conduct a background check.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/8
117-House	2021-03-18	Pathway to Citizenship	A bill to provide permanent resident status to children of immigrants who were brought to the United States by their parents (also known as Dreamers). It provides these immigrants with a pathway to citizenship if they meet the citizenship requirements and commit no crimes.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/6
117-House	2021-05-14	Pregnant Workers Fairness Act	A bill to prohibit employment practices that discriminate against making reasonable accommodations for employees affected by pregnancy, childbirth, or related medical conditions.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/1065
117-House	2021-05-19	January 6 Commission	A bill to establish a National Commission to investigate the January 6 attack on the United States Capitol.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/3233
117-House	2021-06-24	LGBTQ Equal Credit Enforcement	A bill to require financial institutions to report data regarding lesbian, gay, bisexual, transgender, or queer-owned businesses. Currently, this data is reported regarding women-owned, minority-owned, and small businesses.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/1443

Cong-Chamb.	Date	Description	Wording	Congress Link
117-Senate	2021-08-10	Infrastructure and Jobs Act	A bill to spend \$150 billion a year for 8 years on construction and repair of roads and bridges, rail, public transit, airports, water systems and broadband internet.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/3684
117-House	2021-10-22	PUMP Act	A bill to require employers to provide break time and a private space (that is not a bathroom) for nursing employees to pump breast milk.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/3110
117-House	2021-11-05	Infrastructure and Jobs Act	A bill to spend \$150 billion a year for 8 years on construction and repair of roads and bridges, rail, public transit, airports, water systems and broadband internet.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/3684
117-House	2021-11-19	Build Back Better	A bill to spend \$2.2 trillion over the next decade to provide universal prekindergarten, subsidies for child care, expanded financial aid for college, housing support, home and community care for older Americans, and to shift the U.S. economy away from fossil fuels to renewable energy and electric cars.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/5376
117-House	2022-04-04	Increase Medical Marijuana Research	A bill to expand medical marijuana research.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/5657
117-Senate	2022-04-07	Nomination of Ketanji Brown Jackson	A bill to appoint Ketanji Brown Jackson to the U.S. Supreme Court.	https://www.congress.gov/nomination/117th-congress/1783
117-House	2022-07-13	Active Shooter Alert Act	A bill to appoint a national coordinator of an Active Shooter Alert Communication Network regarding active shooter emergencies.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/6538
117-House	2022-07-15	Ensure Abortion Access	A bill to prohibit government restrictions on the provision of, and access to, abortion services.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/8297
117-Senate	2022-07-27	CHIPS Act	A bill to provide \$52 billion in grants for American semiconductor manufacturing and research and a tax credit subsidizing 25% of investments in semiconductor manufacturing.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/4346
117-House	2022-07-28	CHIPS Act	A bill to provide \$52 billion in grants for American semiconductor manufacturing and research and a tax credit subsidizing 25% of investments in semiconductor manufacturing.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/4346

Cong-Chamb.	Date	Description	Wording	Congress Link
117-Senate	2022-08-07	Inflation Reduction Act	A bill to spend \$369 billion for tax credits to encourage the production of solar panels, wind turbines, and batteries; lowers Affordable Care Act health care premiums; reduces the deficit by \$300 billion by allowing Medicare to negotiate the cost of some prescription drugs and making changes to the tax code.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/5376
117-House	2022-08-12	Inflation Reduction Act	A bill to spend \$369 billion for tax credits to encourage the production of solar panels, wind turbines, and batteries; lowers Affordable Care Act health care premiums; reduces the deficit by \$300 billion by allowing Medicare to negotiate the cost of some prescription drugs and making changes to the tax code.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/5376
117-House	2022-09-14	BRIGHT Act	A bill to require all federal buildings to use energy-efficient lighting.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/senate-bill/442
117-House	2022-11-16	Speak Out Act	A bill to allow survivors of sexual harassment or assault to speak out about their experiences, even if a nondisclosure agreement (NDA) was signed before the dispute took place.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/senate-bill/4524
117-House	2022-12-08	Respect for Marriage Act	A bill to require that all federal agencies recognize same-sex marriages and interracial marriages.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/117th-congress/house-bill/8404
118-House	2023-03-24	Parental Bill of Rights	A bill to establish various rights of parents and guardians regarding public elementary and secondary school education, including the right of parents to review the curriculum of their child's school, among other things.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/118th-congress/house-bill/5
118-House	2023-12-06	Eliminate Electric Vehicle Mandate	A bill to limit the authority of the Environmental Protection Agency (EPA) with regard to regulating emissions standards for new motor vehicles. Specifically, the EPA is prohibited from prescribing a regulation related to new motor vehicle emissions standards that mandates the use of electric vehicles.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/118th-congress/house-bill/4468
118-House	2024-03-13	Force the sale of TikTok	A bill to ban TikTok unless China sells it to a US company.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/118th-congress/house-bill/7521
118-House	2024-05-15	Deportation for Assaulting Police	A bill to make assaulting a police officer, firefighter, or other first responder a deportable offense.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/118th-congress/house-bill/7343
118-House	2024-07-10	Require Voter ID	A bill to require individuals to provide documentary proof of U.S. citizenship in order to register to vote in federal elections.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/118th-congress/house-bill/8281

Cong-Chamb.	Date	Description	Wording	Congress Link
119-House	2025-01-14	Protection of Women in Sports Act	A bill to generally prohibit school athletic programs from allowing individuals whose biological sex at birth was male to participate in programs that are for women or girls.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/119th-congress/house-bill/28
119-House	2025-01-22	Laken Riley Act	A bill to make larceny, burglary, and theft deportable offenses.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/119th-congress/senate-bill/5
119-House	2025-03-11	Extend Covid Fraud Enforcement	A bill to allow the federal government to bring charges against individuals for fraudulent abuse of COVID-19 governmental assistance programs for 5 more years.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/119th-congress/house-bill/1156
119-House	2025-06-12	Fentanyl Schedule I	A bill to place fentanyl-related substances in the most dangerous classification of controlled substances, with the greatest regulation and criminal penalties.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/119th-congress/senate-bill/331
119-House	2025-07-03	Reduce Medicaid Spending	A bill to set the federal budget. One of the biggest changes is a \$1 trillion cut in spending on Medicaid (health insurance for lower income people). The bill achieves this by creating more barriers for recipients, including requiring them to hold a job.	https://www.congress.gov/bill/119th-congress/house-bill/1

Note: The “Cong-Chamb.” column lists the congress and chamber in which the vote took place. The “Wording” column presents the exact wording we used on our surveys to ask respondents about each bill. “Congress Link” links to the congress.gov page summarizing each bill. To find information on the bills and wording from the Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) dataset, please see the supporting information for their article.

G.2 Roll Call Votes

Table G.27: Roll Call Votes and Passage Rates

Description	Date	Yeas	Nays	Missing	Pass By	Party	Close
Medicare Negotiate Drug Costs (H)	2019-12-12	230	192	8	14	D+35	1
American Rescue Plan Act (S)	2021-03-06	50	49	1	0	R+2	1
American Rescue Plan Act (H)	2021-03-10	220	211	1	4	D+10	1
Universal Background Checks (H)	2021-03-11	227	203	1	11	D+9	1
Pathway to Citizenship (H)	2021-03-18	228	197	5	12	D+8	1
Pregnant Workers Fairness Act (H)	2021-05-14	315	101	14	99	D+6	0
January 6 Commission (H)	2021-05-19	252	175	3	36	D+8	0
LGBTQ Equal Credit Enforcement (H)	2021-06-24	252	176	2	36	D+8	0
Infrastructure and Jobs Act (S)	2021-08-10	69	30	1	19	R+2	0
PUMP Act (H)	2021-10-22	276	149	6	60	D+7	0
Infrastructure and Jobs Act (H)	2021-11-05	228	206	0	12	D+8	1
Build Back Better (H)	2021-11-19	220	213	1	4	D+8	1
Increase Medical Marijuana Research (H)	2022-04-04	343	75	11	127	D+11	0
Nomination of Ketanji Brown Jackson (S)	2022-04-07	53	47	0	3	R+2	1
Active Shooter Alert Act (H)	2022-07-13	260	169	2	44	D+9	0
Ensure Abortion Access (H)	2022-07-15	223	205	3	7	D+9	1
CHIPS Act (S)	2022-07-27	64	33	3	14	R+2	0
CHIPS Act (H)	2022-07-28	243	187	1	27	D+9	0
Inflation Reduction Act (S)	2022-08-07	50	50	0	0	R+2	1
Inflation Reduction Act (H)	2022-08-12	220	207	4	4	D+9	1
BRIGHT Act (H)	2022-09-14	347	78	7	131	D+8	0
Speak Out Act (H)	2022-11-16	315	109	8	99	D+6	0
Respect for Marriage Act (H)	2022-12-08	258	169	5	42	D+6	0
Parental Bill of Rights (H)	2023-03-24	213	208	14	3	R+9	1
Eliminate Electric Vehicle Mandate (H)	2023-12-06	221	197	15	5	R+7	1
Force the sale of TikTok (H)	2024-03-13	352	65	15	136	R+6	0
Deportation for Assaulting Police (H)	2024-05-15	265	148	17	49	R+4	0
Require Voter ID (H)	2024-07-10	221	198	14	5	R+7	1
Protection of Women in Sports Act (H)	2025-01-14	218	206	10	2	R+4	1
Laken Riley Act (H)	2025-01-22	263	156	14	47	R+3	0
Extend Covid Fraud Enforcement (H)	2025-03-11	295	127	10	79	R+4	0
Fentanyl Schedule I (H)	2025-06-12	321	104	7	105	R+8	0
Reduce Medicaid Spending (H)	2025-07-03	218	214	0	2	R+8	1

Note: We follow Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) by using the “Pass By” column to report the number of “yea” votes over a fixed majority threshold a vote received. The one exception is the Parental Bill of Rights in which less than the chamber majority voted “yea,” but the bill passed due to low attendance. Negative values indicate the bill failed. We additionally follow Ansolabehere and Kuriwaki (2022) by labeling votes as “Close” if they receive between 45% and 55% of support.

G.3 Survey Question Stems

Table G.28: Question Stems from Original Survey

Question	Question Stem
Page 1 Intro	Between [Year] and [Year] Congress considered a number of important bills. For each of the following bills we would like to know how you think your member of Congress voted and whether you support or oppose the bill.
Representative	Do you think your representative, [Representative], voted for or against this bill?
Senior Senator	Do you think your senior senator, [Senior Senator], voted for or against this bill?
Junior Senator	Do you think your junior senator, [Junior Senator], voted for or against this bill?
Self	Are you for or against this bill?
Page 2 Intro	On the same set of bills you just saw, we would like to know how you think most Democrats and most Republicans in Congress voted. We also would like to know whether you think most people in your congressional district and state are for or against each policy.
Democrats	Do you think most Democrats in Congress voted for or against this bill?
Republicans	Do you think most Republicans in Congress voted for or against this bill?
District	Do you think most people in your congressional district are for or against this bill?
State	Do you think most people in your state, [State], are for or against this bill?

Note: The “Question Stem” column reports the question wording for each question we asked about voters’ perceptions of stances on each bill. The order of the four questions asked on each page was randomized for each respondent. On page 1 of our second survey, we only asked about “Representative” and “Self.”